



CHAPTER 5:

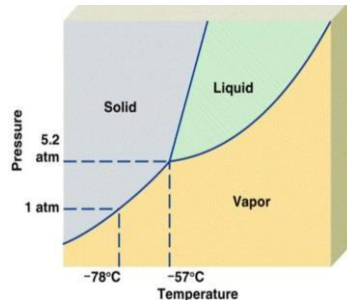
STATES OF MATTER



5.1 GAS

5.0 STATES OF MATTER

5.4 PHASE
DIAGRAM



5.2
LIQUIDS



5.3
SOLIDS

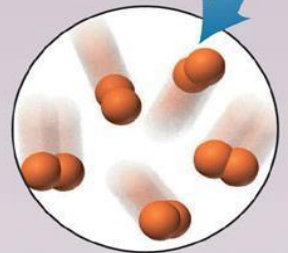


3 States of Matter :

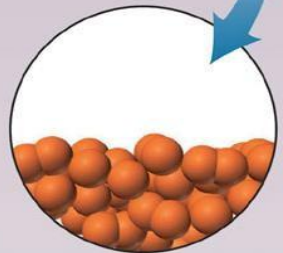
Gas

Liquid

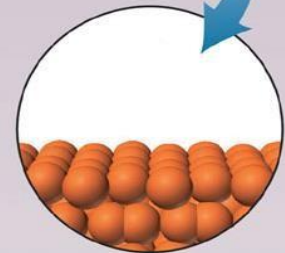
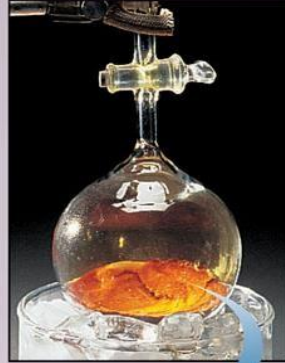
solid



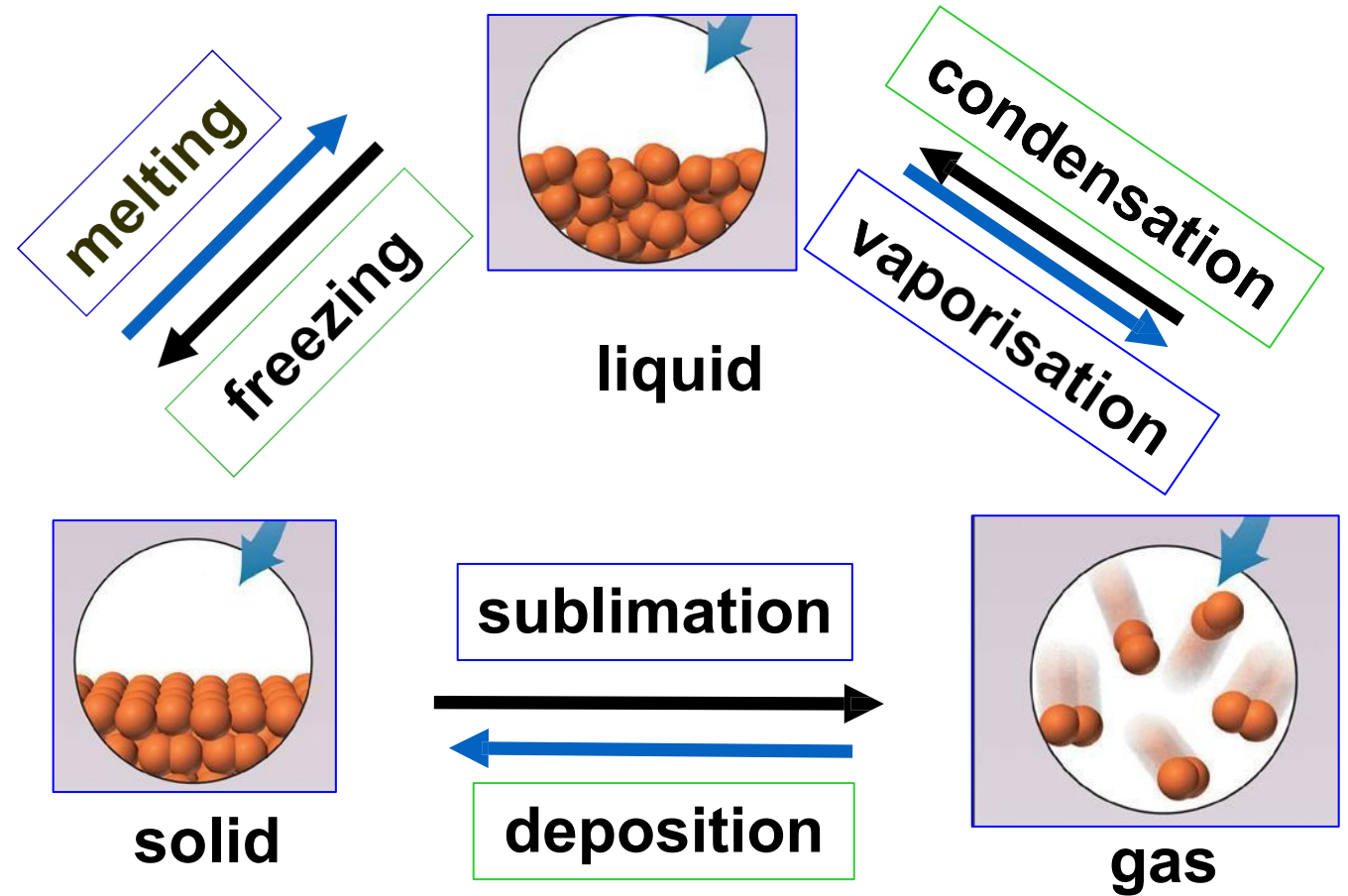
A Gas: Molecules are far apart and fill the available space



B Liquid: Molecules are close together but move relative to each other



C Solid: Molecules are tightly packed in a regular array and move very little relative to each other



Inter-convertible states of matter

- ✓ Changes in state are described as physical changes. When a substance undergoes a change in state, many of its physical properties change.
- ✓ The table summarizes the important differences in physical properties among gas, liquid, and solid.

	Solid	Liquid	Gas
Volume	Fixed	Fixed	Volume of the container
Shape	Fixed	Take the shape of the container, but not necessarily occupy the whole container	Takes the shape of the container which it occupies
Compressibility	Incompressible	Very low	High
Relative density	Very high	High	Low

5.1 GAS

- ✓ General properties of gas:

Gas	
Volume	No fixed volume. Takes the volume of the container
Shape	Takes the shape of the container which it occupies
Compressibility	High
Relative density	Low

- ✓ An ideal gas is a simplistic model that describes how molecules or atoms behave at the microscopic level.
- ✓ It is used to determine the relationship of temperature, volume, pressure, and quantity in a gaseous system.
- ✓ **An ideal gas behaves precisely according to the Kinetic Molecular Theory**

Kinetic Molecular Theory of Gases

- 1 Gases consist of large numbers of molecules that are in **continuous random motion**.
- 2 The **volume** of all the **gas molecules** is **negligible** compared to the total volume in which the gas is contained.
- 3 **Attractive and repulsive forces** between gas molecules are **negligible**.
- 4 The **collisions** between the gas molecules are perfectly **elastic**.
- 5 The average kinetic energy gas molecules is **proportional to absolute temperature**.



GAS LAWS

Four Variables of Gases

n Moles

V Volume

P Pressure

T Temperature

GAS LAWS

Boyle's Law

Charles' Law

Avogadro's Law

Ideal Gas Law

Each gas law describes the relationship between two variables, given that the remaining two variables are held constant

Boyle's Law

by Robert Boyle in 1662

State that for a fixed amount of gas at constant temperature, gas volume is inversely proportional to gas pressure.

$$V \propto \frac{1}{P} \quad \text{at constant } n, T$$

$$PV = k \quad \text{where } k \text{ is a constant}$$

For a given sample of gas at different pressure and volume:

$$P_1 V_1 = P_2 V_2$$

P_1 = initial pressure

V_1 = initial volume

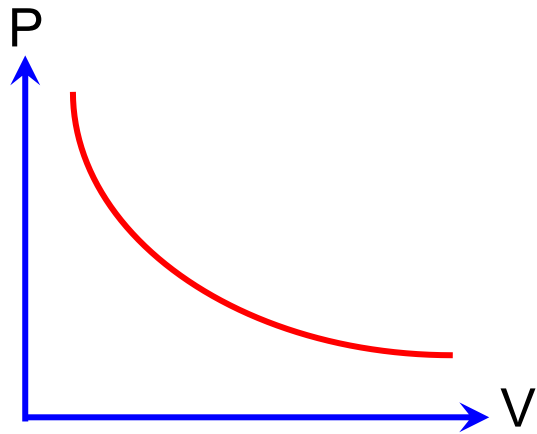
P_2 = final pressure

V_2 = final volume

Because under high pressure, gases do not behave ideally and would liquefy because its volume is reduced to zero.

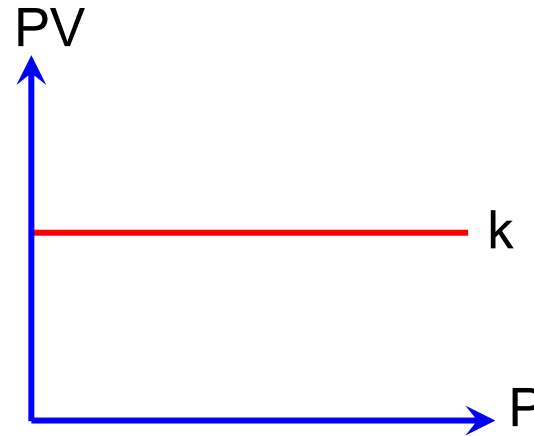
Boyle's Law can be represented by the following graphs at fixed amount of gas and constant temperature:

(a) Pressure against volume



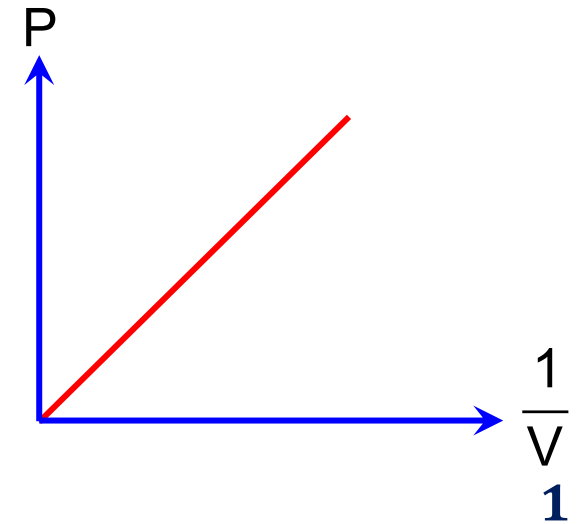
Illustrate that pressure is inversely proportional to volume.

(b) PV against pressure



Illustrate that $PV = \text{constant}$

(c) Pressure against $\frac{1}{V}$



Illustrate that $P \propto \frac{1}{V}$

Charles' Law

by Jacques Charles in 1787

- ✓ State that for a fixed amount of gas at constant pressure, gas volume is directly proportional to temperature (in Kelvin).

$$V \propto T \quad \text{at constant } n, P$$

$$\frac{V}{T} = k \quad \text{where } k \text{ is a constant}$$

- ✓ For a given sample of gas at different temperature and volume:

$$\frac{V_1}{T_1} = \frac{V_2}{T_2}$$

T_1 = initial temperature

V_1 = initial volume

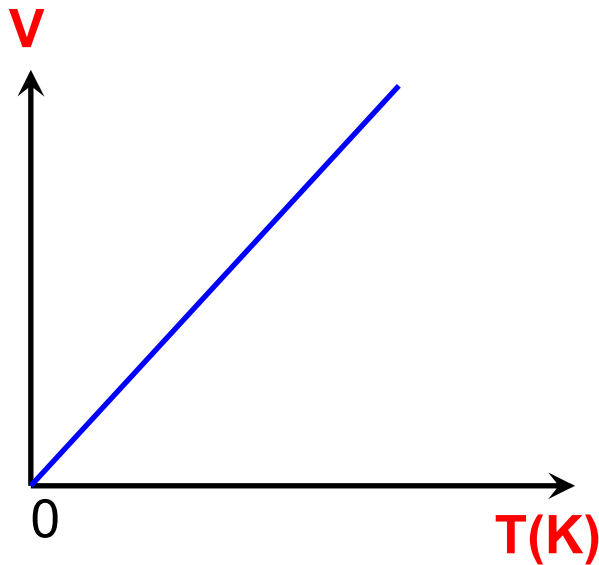
T_2 = final temperature

V_2 = final volume

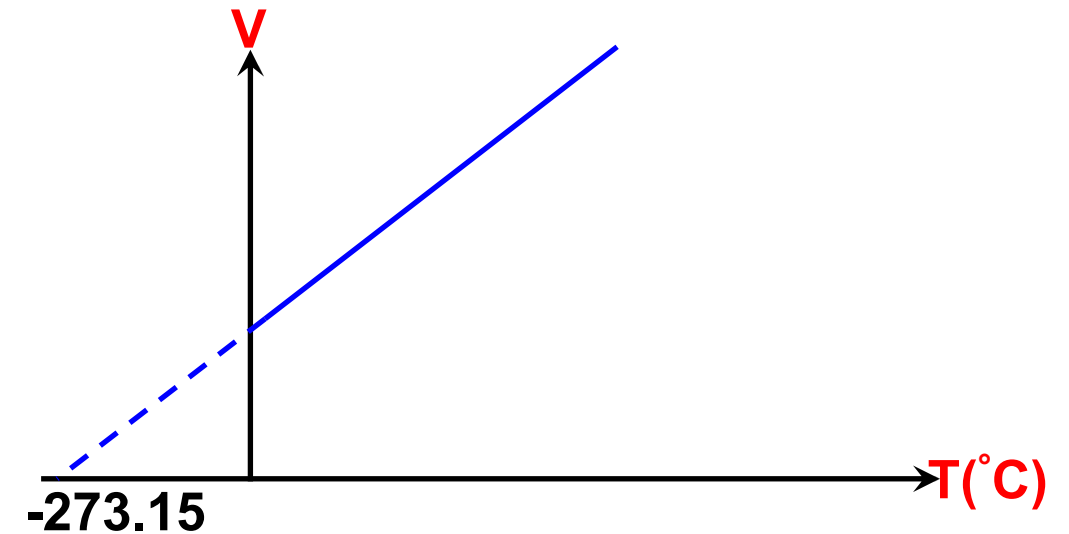
$$T(K) = T(^{\circ}C) + 273$$

Charles' Law can be represented by the following graphs at fixed amount of gas and constant pressure:

Volume against temperature (K)



Volume against temperature ($^{\circ}\text{C}$)



Avogadro's Law

by Amedeo Avogadro in 1787

- ✓ State that for a fixed amount of gas at constant pressure and temperature, gas volume is directly proportional to the number of moles of the gas present.

$$V \propto n \quad \text{at constant T, P}$$

$$\frac{V}{n} = k \quad \text{where k is a constant}$$

- ✓ For a given sample of gas at different mole and volume:

$$\frac{V_1}{n_1} = \frac{V_2}{n_2}$$

n_1 = initial moles
 n_2 = final moles

V_1 = initial volume
 V_2 = final volume

EXAMPLE:

A sample of chlorine gas occupies a volume of 750 mL at a pressure of 5 atm. Calculate the pressure of the gas if the volume is reduced at constant temperature to 200 mL?

SOLUTION:

$$\begin{array}{ll} V_1 = 750 \text{ mL} & V_2 = 200 \text{ mL} \\ P_1 = 5 \text{ atm} & P_2 = ? \end{array}$$

$$P_1 V_1 = P_2 V_2$$

$$750 \text{ mL (5 atm)} = P_2 (200 \text{ mL})$$

$$\mathbf{P_2 = 18.75 \text{ atm}}$$

EXAMPLE:

A 452 mL sample of flourine gas is heated from 22 °C to 187 °C at constant pressure. What is its final volume.

SOLUTION:

$$\begin{aligned} V_1 &= 452 \text{ mL} \\ T_1 &= 22^\circ\text{C} \\ &= 295 \text{ K} \end{aligned}$$

$$\begin{aligned} V_2 &= ? \\ T_2 &= 187^\circ\text{C} \\ &= 460 \end{aligned}$$

$$\frac{V_1}{T_1} = \frac{V_2}{T_2}$$

$$\frac{452 \text{ mL}}{295 \text{ K}} = \frac{V_2}{460 \text{ K}}$$

$$V_2 = 704.81 \text{ mL}$$

Ideal Gas Law

Ideal gas : Gas which obey gas laws and ideal gas equation under all conditions.

obey Boyle's, Charles' and Avogadro's law

combination 3 laws, a single expression relating P,V, n and T is obtained.

Boyle's Law : $V \propto \frac{1}{P}$ at constant n, T

Charles' Law : $V \propto T$ at constant n, P

Avogadro's Law : $V \propto n$ at constant T, P

Ideal gas $\longrightarrow$ $PV=nRT$

$$V \propto \frac{nT}{P}$$

$$V = R \frac{nT}{P}$$

Where;

P = pressure

V = volume of the gas

n = moles of gas

T = temperature in kelvin

R = gas constant

($8.314 \text{ J K}^{-1} \text{ mol}^{-1}$ @
 $0.08206 \text{ L atm K}^{-1} \text{ mol}^{-1}$)

Units for pressure, volume, universal gas constant and temperature

Pressure, P	Volume, V	Gas constant, R	Temperature, T
Pa @ Nm^{-2}	m^3	$8.314 \text{ J mol}^{-1} \text{ K}^{-1}$	K
atm	L	$0.08206 \text{ L atm mol}^{-1} \text{ K}^{-1}$	K

REMARK: For calculation purpose :**P**, **V**, **R** and **T** must be in the correct unit.

EXAMPLE:

What is the pressure in a 200 cm³ vessel if 12 g of methane, CH₄ gas is heated to a temperature of 40°C?

SOLUTION:

mass of CH₄ = 12g T = 40°C = 313 K

$$V = 200\text{cm}^3 = 0.2 \text{ dm}^3$$

$$n_{\text{CH}_4} = \frac{12\text{g}}{16 \text{ g mol}^{-1}} = 0.75 \text{ mol}$$

$$PV = nRT$$

$$P = \frac{(0.75 \text{ mol})(0.08206 \text{ dm}^3 \text{ atm mol}^{-1} \text{ K}^{-1})(313 \text{ K})}{0.2 \text{ dm}^3}$$
$$= 96.32 \text{ atm}$$

NOTE: Density and molar mass of a gas can be calculated by rearranging the Ideal Gas Equation

$$PV = nRT$$

$$PV = \frac{mRT}{M}$$

$$P = \frac{nRT}{V} \quad \text{where } c = \frac{n}{V}$$

$$\frac{PV}{mRT} = \frac{1}{M} \quad \text{where density, } d = \frac{m}{V}$$

$$P = cRT$$

$$P = \frac{dRT}{M}$$

m = mass of gas

M = molar mass

c = molarity / concentration

d = density

EXAMPLE:

A chemist has synthesized a greenish-yellow compound of chlorine and oxygen and finds that its density is 7.71 g L^{-1} at 36°C and 2.88 atm . Calculate the molar mass of the compound.

SOLUTION:

$$d = 7.71 \text{ g L}^{-1} \quad T = 36^\circ\text{C} = 309\text{K} \quad P = 2.88 \text{ atm}$$

$$M = \frac{dRT}{P}$$

$$M = \frac{(7.71 \text{ g L}^{-1})(0.08206 \text{ L atm mol}^{-1}\text{K}^{-1})(309\text{K})}{2.88 \text{ atm}}$$

$$= 67.88 \text{ g mol}^{-1}$$

EXAMPLE:

An unknown gas, **A**, with a mass of 15.7 g at 27°C and 1.5 atm, occupies a volume equivalent to that of 13 g of oxygen at STP. Calculate the molar mass and density of gas A.

What would be the volume of the same amount of **A** if pressure were doubled at constant temperature?

SOLUTION:

$$\text{mass A} = 15.7 \text{ g} \quad T = 27^\circ \text{C} = 300 \quad P = 1.5$$

$$n_{\text{O}_2} = \frac{13}{32 \text{ g mol}^{-1}} = 0.4063 \text{ mol} \quad \text{atm}$$

$$V_{\text{O}_2} = V_{\text{A}} = 0.4063 \text{ mol} \times 22.4 \text{ L mol}^{-1} = 9.1011 \text{ L}$$

$$d = \frac{m}{V} \\ = \frac{15.7 \text{ g}}{9.1011 \text{ L}} \\ = 1.73 \text{ g L}^{-1}$$

$$M = \frac{dRT}{P} \\ = \frac{(1.73 \text{ g L}^{-1})(0.08206 \text{ L atm mol}^{-1} \text{K}^{-1})(300 \text{ K})}{1.5 \text{ atm}} \\ = 28.39 \text{ g mol}^{-1}$$

EXAMPLE:

An unknown gas, **A**, with a mass of 15.7 g at 27°C and 1.5 atm, occupies a volume equivalent to that of 13 g of oxygen at STP. Calculate the molar mass and density of gas **A**.

What would be the volume of the same amount of **A** if pressure were doubled at constant temperature?

SOLUTION:

$$V_1 = 9.1011 \text{ L} \quad P_1 = 1.5 \text{ atm} \quad P_2 = 3.0 \text{ atm}$$

Since **n** and **T** are constant, use Boyle's Law

$$P_1 V_1 = P_2 V_2$$

$$(1.5 \text{ atm})(9.1011 \text{ L}) = (3.0 \text{ atm})(V_2)$$

$$\mathbf{V_2 = 4.55 \text{ L}}$$

Dalton's Law

The total pressure of mixture of non-reacting gases is the sum of the partial pressures exerted by each of the gas in the mixture

Partial Pressure: Pressure of one component in a mixture of gases

NOTE:

Partial pressure of A is given by:

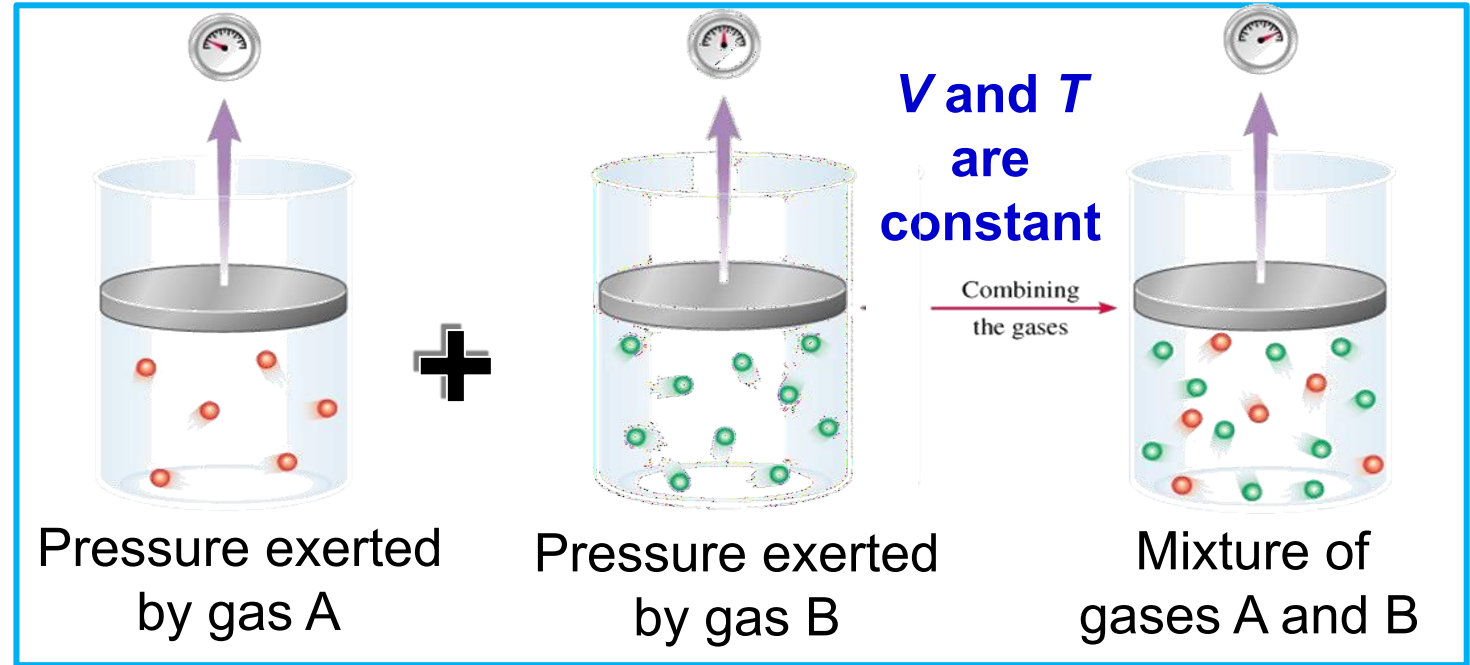
$$P_A = X_A P_T$$

where X_A = mole fraction of gas A in the mixture

$$X_A = \frac{n_A}{n_T} \Rightarrow$$

$$P_A = \frac{n_A}{n_T} P$$

For a mixture containing gas A and B



By using Ideal Gas Equation ;

$$P_A = \frac{n_A RT}{V} \quad P_B = \frac{n_B RT}{V}$$

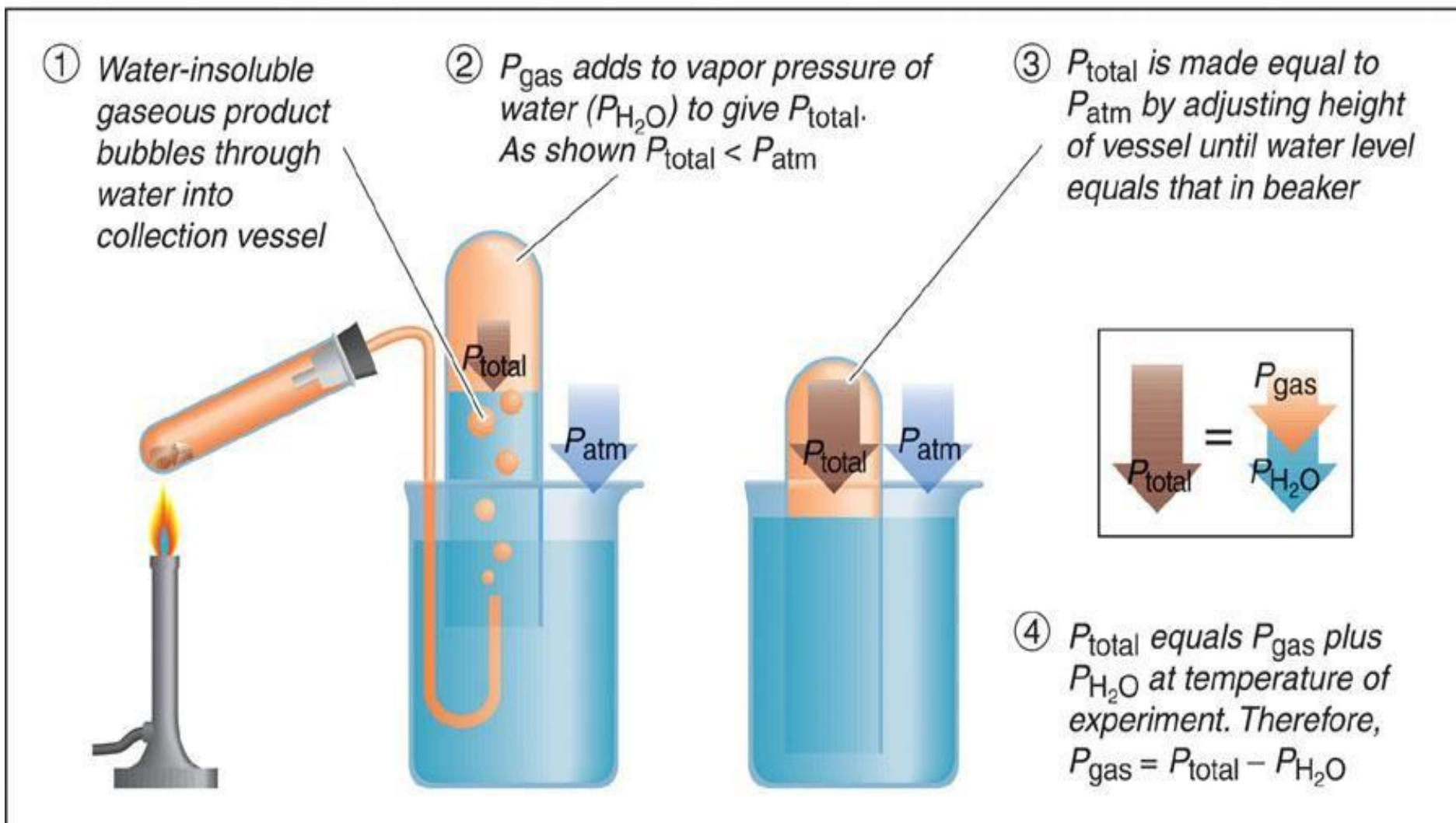
$$P_T = P_A + P_B$$

REMINDER: The total mole fraction (X_T) of all gases in the mixture = 1

$$P_T = \frac{n_A RT}{V} + \frac{n_B RT}{V}$$

$$P_T = \frac{n_T RT}{V}$$

Example of Dalton's law in laboratory:
Water Displacement Method – when a gas is collected over water.



- Gas does not react with water
- Total pressure is not only from the particular gas but also from the water vapour.

EXAMPLE:

A mixture of gases contains 0.1 mol of CO_2 and 0.3 mol of O_2 . Calculate the partial pressure of the gases if the total pressure is 760 mmHg at a certain temperature.

SOLUTION:

$$n_{\text{CO}_2} = 0.1 \text{ mol} \quad n_{\text{O}_2} = 0.3 \text{ mol}$$

$$P_T = P_{\text{CO}_2} + P_{\text{O}_2} = 760 \text{ mmHg}$$

$$P_{\text{CO}_2} = \frac{n_{\text{CO}_2}}{n_T} P_T$$

$$\begin{aligned} &= \left(\frac{0.1}{0.1 + 0.3} \right) 760 \\ &= 190 \text{ mmHg} \end{aligned}$$

$$\begin{aligned} P_{\text{O}_2} &= P_T - P_{\text{CO}_2} \\ &= 760 - 190 \\ &= 570 \text{ mmHg} \end{aligned}$$

EXAMPLE:

A sample of gas at 5.88 atm contains 1.2 g CH₄, 0.4 g H₂ and 0.1 g He. Calculate the partial pressure of CH₄ in the mixture.

SOLUTION:

$$\text{mass CH}_4 = 1.2\text{g} \quad \text{mass H}_2 = 0.4\text{ g} \quad \text{mass He} = 0.1$$

$$P_T = P_{\text{CH}_4} + P_{\text{H}_2} + P_{\text{He}} = 5.88 \text{ atm}$$

$$n_{\text{CH}_4} = \frac{1.2\text{ g}}{16\text{ g mol}^{-1}} = 0.075 \text{ mol}$$

$$n_{\text{H}_2} = \frac{0.4\text{ g}}{2\text{ g mol}^{-1}} = 0.2 \text{ mol}$$

$$n_{\text{He}} = \frac{0.1}{4\text{ g mol}^{-1}} = 0.025 \text{ mol}$$

$$n_T = n_{\text{CH}_4} + n_{\text{H}_2} + n_{\text{He}}$$

$$= 0.075 \text{ mol} + 0.2 \text{ mol} + 0.025 \text{ mol} = 0.3$$

mol

$$P_{\text{CH}_4} = \frac{n_{\text{CH}_4}}{n_T} P_T$$

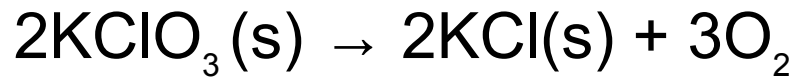
$$= \left(\frac{0.075 \text{ mol}}{0.3 \text{ mol}} \right) (5.88 \text{ atm})$$

$$= 1.47$$

atm

EXAMPLE:

Consider the reaction below :



(g)
A sample of 5.45 L of oxygen is collected over total pressure of 735.5 torr at 25°C. How many grams of oxygen have been collected? (at 25°C, the vapour pressure of water is 23.8 torr)

SOLUTION:

$$P_T = 735.5 \text{ torr} \quad V = 5.45 \text{ L} \quad T = 298 \text{ K}$$

$$P_T = P_{\text{O}_2} + P_{\text{H}_2\text{O}}$$

$$P_{\text{O}_2} = 735.5 \text{ torr} - 23.8 \text{ torr}$$

$$= 711.7 \text{ torr}$$

$$P_{\text{O}_2} V = n_{\text{O}_2} RT \quad \frac{711.7 \text{ torr} \times 5.45 \text{ L}}{760 \text{ torr} \times 0.08206 \text{ L atm mol}^{-1} \text{K}^{-1} \times 298 \text{ K}} = 0.9364 \text{ atm}$$

$$n_{\text{O}_2} = \frac{(0.9364 \text{ atm})(5.45 \text{ L})}{(0.08206 \text{ L atm mol}^{-1} \text{K}^{-1})(298 \text{ K})}$$

$$= 0.2087 \text{ mol}$$

$$\text{mass of O}_2 = 0.2087 \text{ mol} \times 32 \text{ g mol}^{-1}$$

$$= 6.68 \text{ g}$$

REAL GASES : DEVIATION FROM IDEAL BEHAVIOUR

- Gases which **does not** obeys ideal gas equation (also known as non-ideal gas)
- Real gas deviates from ideal behaviour because:

n
1 The gas molecules have

a

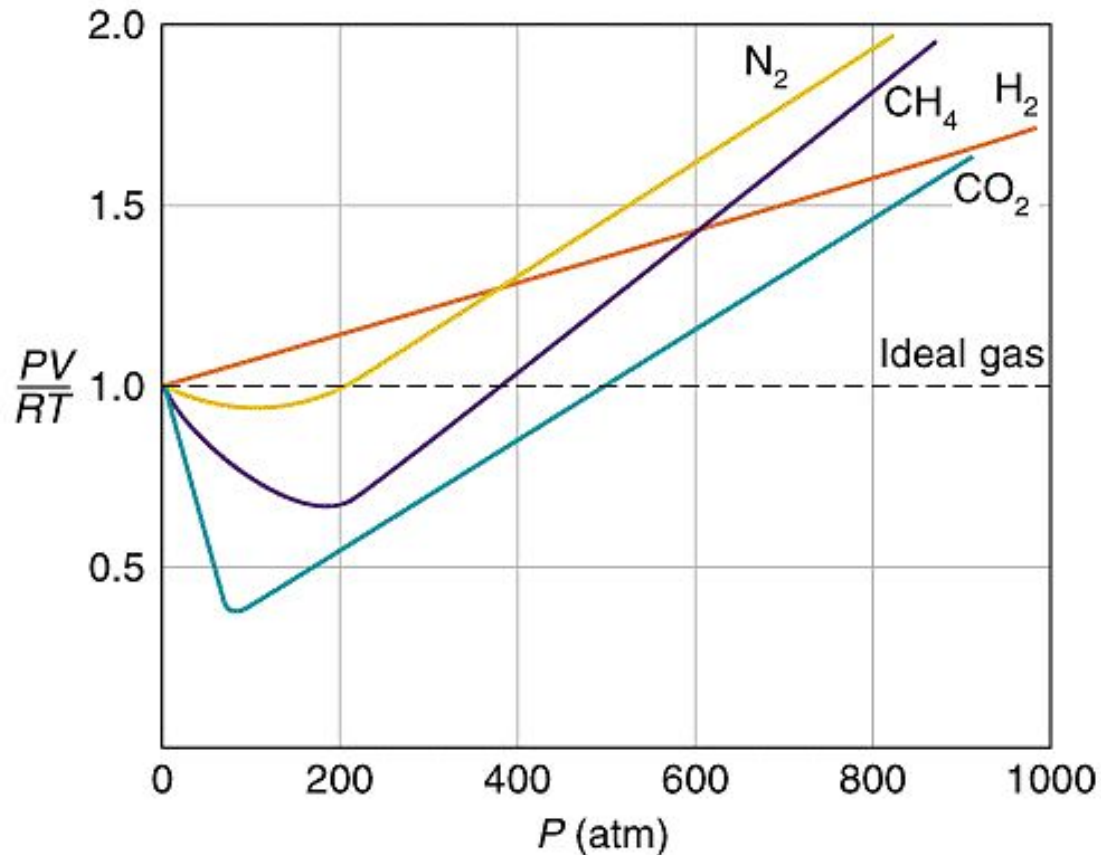
certain volume.

n
2 There are intermolecular
attractive forces between the
gas molecules

- Deviations occurs at:
 1. High Pressure
 2. Low Temperature

- The gas obeys **van der Waals Equation.**

REAL GASES : DEVIATION FROM IDEAL BEHAVIOUR

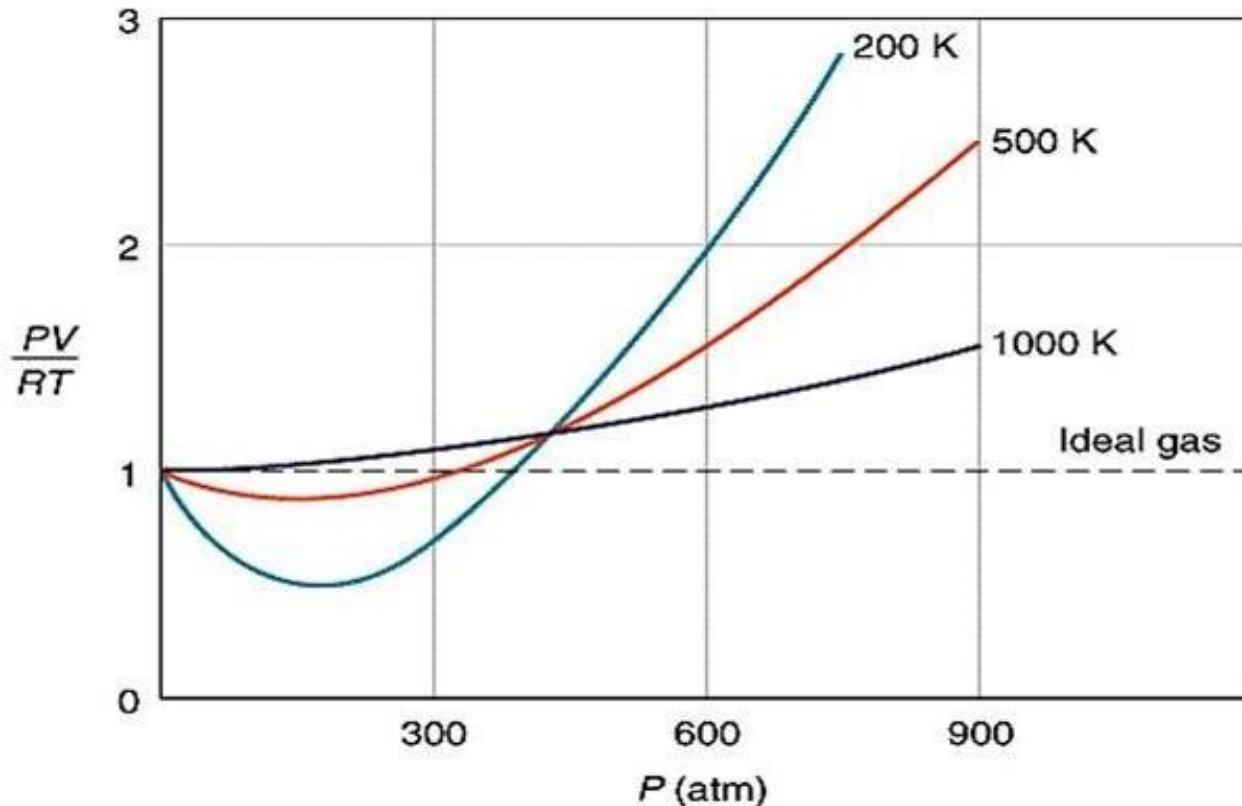


Deviation of real gas from ideal gas behaviour can be shown by plotting PV/RT against pressure.

The graph shows :

- ✓ The gas behaves almost ideally at very low pressure & deviate from ideal behaviour when pressure increases.

REAL GASES : DEVIATION FROM IDEAL BEHAVIOUR



- ✓ Deviation of real gas from ideal gas behaviour can be shown by plotting PV/RT against pressure (at different temperatures)

The graph shows :

- ✓ The gas behaves almost ideally at very high temperature & deviate from ideal behaviour when temperature decreases.

REAL GASES : DEVIATION FROM IDEAL BEHAVIOUR

Reason of the deviation :

1 High pressure

- The volume of container is reduced, the distance between gas molecules getting closer.
- The intermolecular attractive forces now become significant.
- Gas molecules now occupy sizeable portion of the container

2 Low Temperature

- The kinetic energy of the gas molecules become smaller.
- The intermolecular attractive forces become significant.

The real gas obeys
van der Waals equation

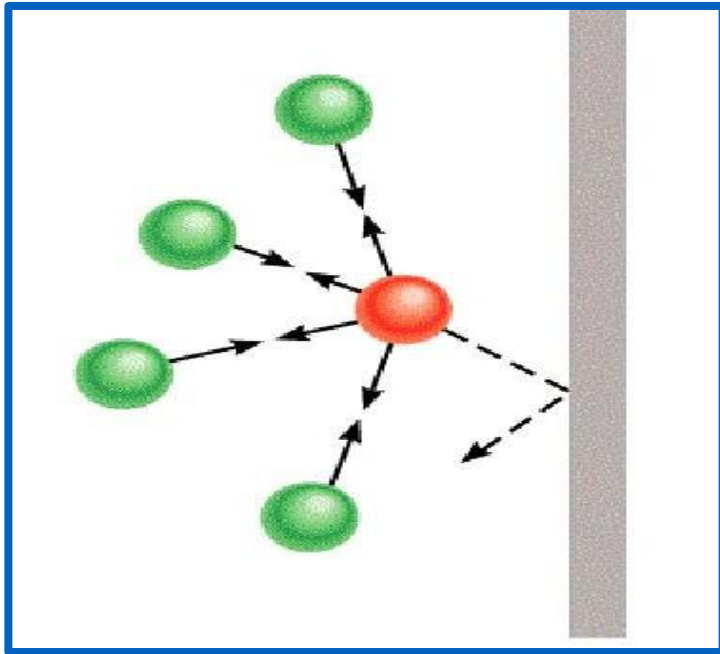
Since real gas does not exhibit ideal gas behavior at high pressure and low temperature, the ideal gas equation ($PV=nRT$) needs to be adjusted.

Adjusting the equation, two parameters need to be reconsidered:

- a) Intermolecular attractive forces between the gas molecules.
- b) volume of the gas molecules.

REAL GASES : van der Waals Equation

CORRECTION ON PRESSURE



The intermolecular attractive forces acting on molecule:

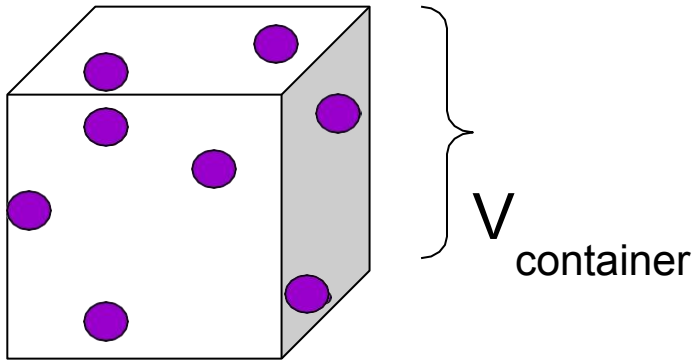
- make the molecules move slower
- give less impact to the wall
- pressure exerted by the real gas is less compared to the ideal gas

$$P_{\text{real}} < P_{\text{ideal}}$$

- the term pressure need to be corrected by adding $\frac{n^2 a}{V^2}$, therefore :

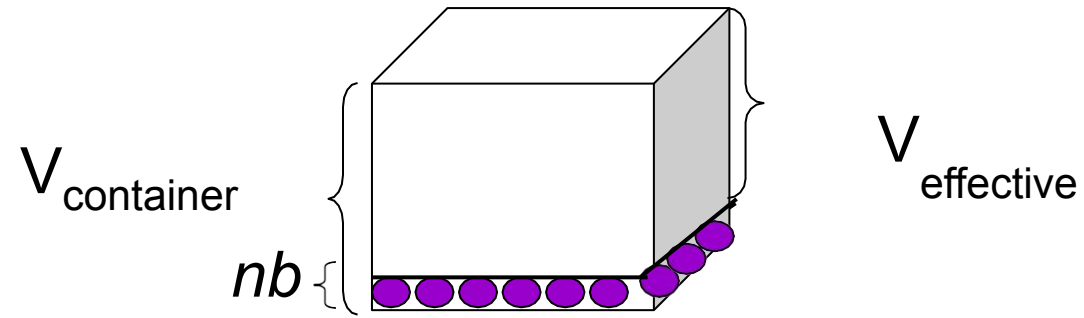
$$P_{\text{ideal}} = P_{\text{real}} + \frac{n^2 a}{V^2}$$

CORRECTION ON VOLUME



In ideal gas equation,

$$V = V_{\text{container}}$$



- However, each molecule in a real gas occupy a **finite volume**, therefore a real gas has a larger volume than ideal gas.
- The space occupied by molecules **restrict the movement** of the gas molecules. Hence must be subtracted from the total volume.
- So, the effective volume of the gas is not V (volume of container) but becomes $V - nb$.

$$V_{\text{effective}} = V_{\text{container}} - nb$$

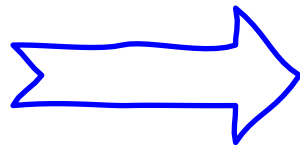
n : number of moles of the gas

b : a constant

nb : volume occupied by n moles of the gas

Combining both factors into an ideal gas equation :

$$PV=nRT$$



$$\left(P + \frac{n^2 a}{V^2} - nb \right) = nRT$$

van der Waals equation

- ✓ Value of ***a*** indicate how strongly molecules of gas attract each other.
- ✓ The stronger the intermolecular attractive forces between gas molecules, the higher *a* value.

- ✓ Value of ***b*** indicate the molecular size of gas molecules.
- ✓ The larger the the size of molecule (or atom), the higher *b* value.

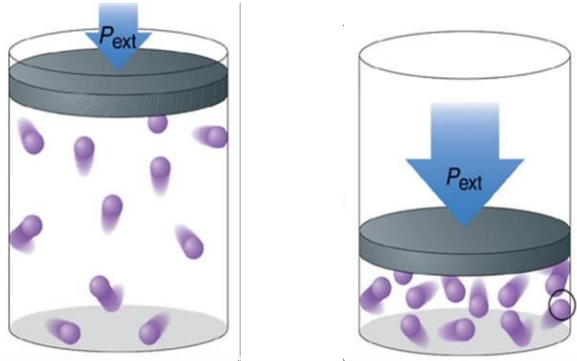
EXAMPLE

GAS	<i>a</i> (L ² atm mol ⁻²)	<i>b</i> (L mol ⁻¹)
He	0.034	0.0237
CO ₂	3.59	0.0427

- Helium atoms have a smaller *a* value because they have weaker intermolecular attractive forces for one another than CO₂
- Helium atoms have a smaller *b* value because their atomic size are smaller than CO₂

REAL GASES BEHAVES ALMOST IDEALLY UNDER TWO CONDITIONS:

1 Low pressure



Low pressure

high pressure

- As the volume of container increases:
- The molecules in a gas are far apart, hence the intermolecular attractive forces are negligible.
- The volume of the molecules is almost zero compared to the total volume & can be neglected

2 High Temperature

- The gas molecules possess high kinetic energy.
- This allows them free themselves from the intermolecular attractive forces. The particles have enough energy to overcome intermolecular forces.
- The intermolecular forces can be neglected.

EXAMPLE:

The van der Waals equation for 1 mol of real gas is as follow :

$$\left(P + \frac{a}{V^2} \right) (V - b) = nRT$$

Determine and explain whether :

- a) H_2 or H_2S molecules has a higher of a and b .
- b) a or b is related to boiling point.

SOLUTION:

- a) H_2S molecules have a higher a because they have the stronger intermolecular forces.
 H_2S molecules have a higher b because their size are bigger, therefore have a higher volume.
- b) a is related to boiling point because stronger intermolecular forces, require energy to overcome the intermolecular forces, higher boiling point. thus

5.2 LIQUID

```
graph TD; A[5.2 LIQUID] --- B[Volume]; A --- C[Shape]; A --- D[Surface tension]; A --- E[Viscosity]; A --- F[Compressibility]; A --- G[Diffusion]; B --- H[PROPERTIES OF LIQUID]; C --- H; D --- H; E --- H; F --- H; G --- H;
```

Volume

Diffusion

Shape

**PROPERTIES
OF LIQUID**

Compressibility

Surface
tension

Viscosity

1

Volume

- **A liquid has a definite volume.**
- Intermolecular attractive forces are strong enough to hold molecules close together to retain the volume of liquid

2

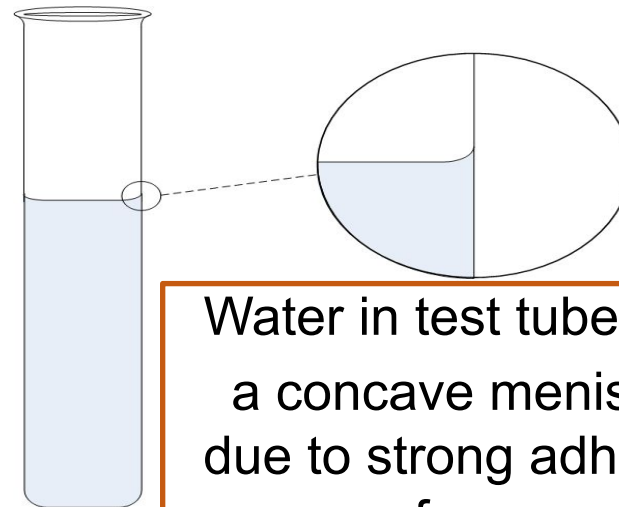
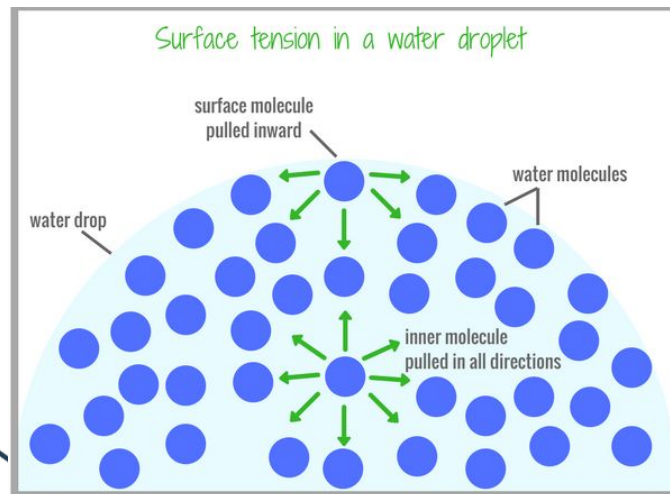
Shape

- **Take the shape of container.**
- Intermolecular attractive forces are not strong enough to hold the molecules in fixed position.
- The particles are able to move freely causes it to take the shape of the container

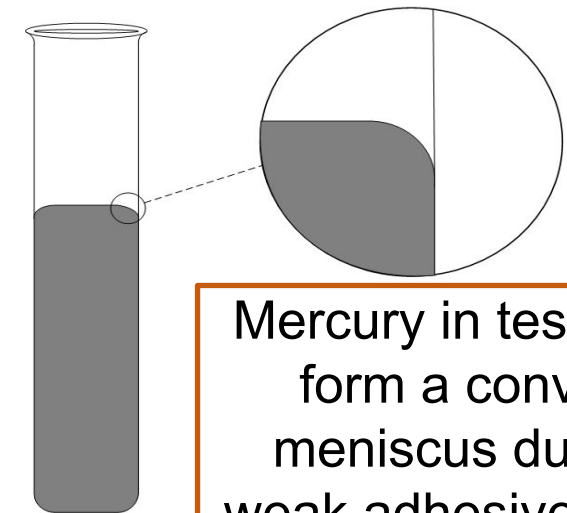
3

Surface tension

- The amount of energy required to stretch or increase the surface of a liquid by a unit area.
- Caused by the intermolecular attractive forces acting within the liquid molecules
- Molecules at the surface are pulled inwards and sideways from the neighboring molecules.
- The inner pulls on the surface molecules cause the liquid to minimise its surface area.
- Hence, the stronger the intermolecular attractive force, the higher the surface tension.



Water in test tube form a concave meniscus due to strong adhesive force



Mercury in test tube form a convex meniscus due to weak adhesive force

4

Viscosity

- Is the tendency of liquid to resist flow.
- The greater the viscosity, the harder/slower it flows
- Factors affecting the viscosity of a liquid:
 - i. Size of molecules
 - ii. Intermolecular attractive forces acting between molecules
 - iii. Temperature of the liquid



- The viscosity of the liquid increases if

Size of molecules	high
Strength of Intermolecular attractive forces of molecules	high
Temperature	low

Factors Affecting the Viscosity of Liquid

Size of Molecules

- As the molecular size increases (bigger molecular weight), the resistance to flow increases (harder to flow).
- Viscosity of the liquid increases.

Strength of Intermolecular Attractive Forces

- As the strength of intermolecular attractive forces increases, the resistance to flow increases (harder to flow)
- Viscosity of the liquid increases

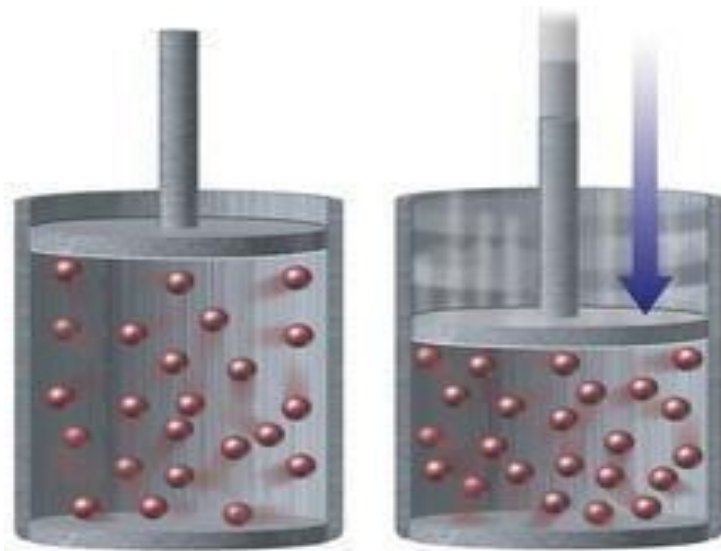
Temperature

- As the temperature increases, the average kinetic energy of molecules to overcome the intermolecular forces increases.
- Resistance to flow decreases, viscosity of the liquid decreases

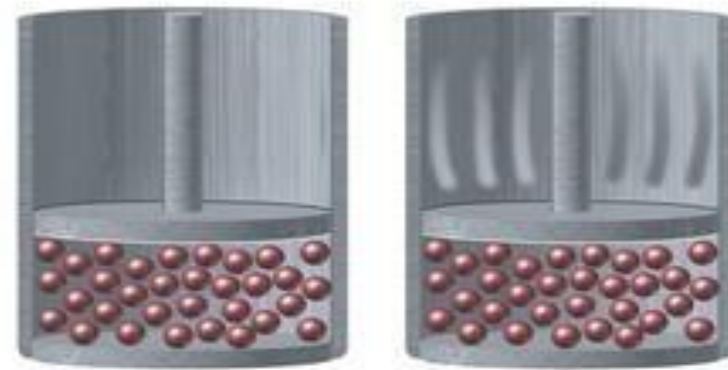
5

Compressibility

- In liquid, the particles are packed closely together.
- There is very little empty space between the molecules hence liquid is more difficult to compress than gas.

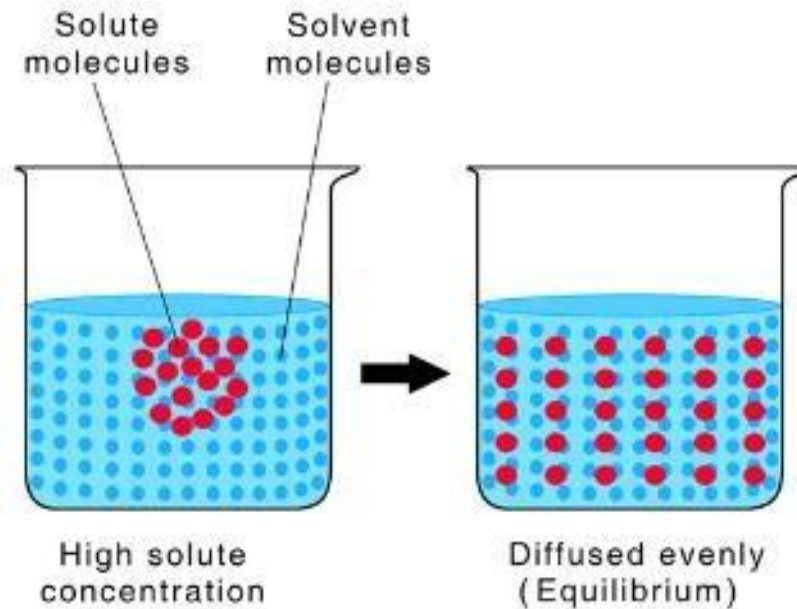


Gas



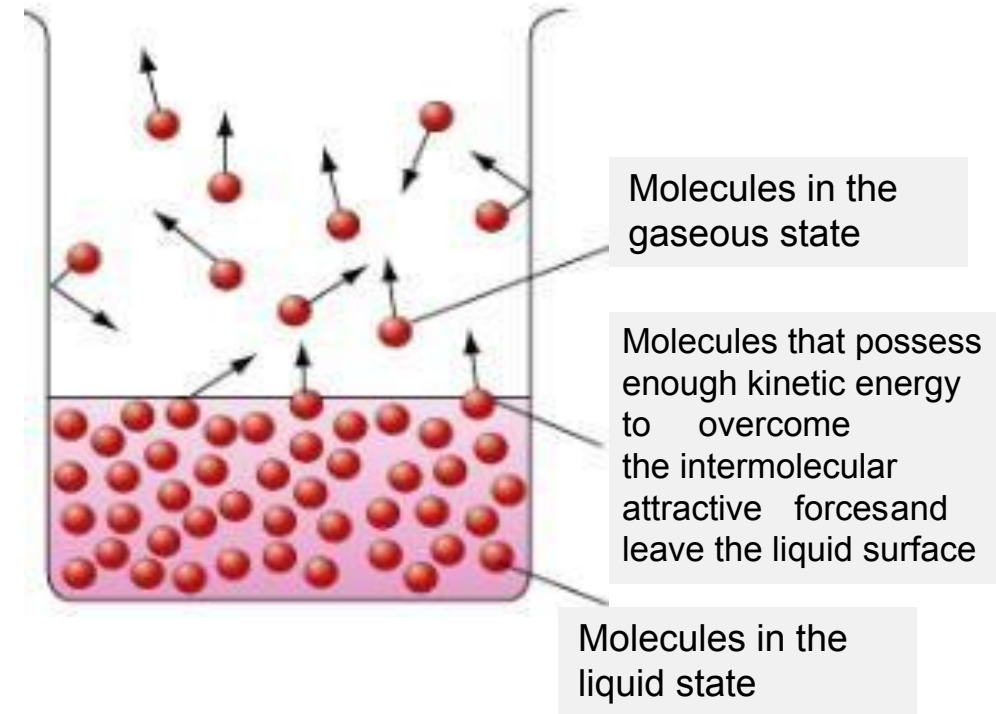
Liquid

- Diffusion is the movement of particles from a region of higher concentration to a region of lower concentration.
- Diffusion rate of liquid is much slower than gases, but faster than solid because:
 - a) Molecules of liquid are closely packed.
 - b) Stronger intermolecular attractive forces restrict the movement of the liquid molecules



VAPORISATION

- Vaporisation is a process of changing state from **liquid to vapour**.
- Molecules in a liquid move freely with **different magnitude kinetic energy**.
 - **Higher** kinetic energy, moves **faster**
 - **Lower** kinetic energy, moves **slower**
- Some molecules have higher kinetic energy than some other molecules.
- Molecules at the surface that possess enough kinetic energy to overcome the intermolecular attractive forces can escape as vapour in the gas phase.



FACTORS THAT AFFECT VAPORISATION

Surface Area

- Higher surface area, more liquid molecules are on the liquid surface.
- More molecules are able to escape into vapour
- Vaporisation rate increases

Temperature

- The higher temperature, the higher kinetic energy
- More liquid molecules are able to overcome the intermolecular forces and escape into vapour phase
- Vaporisation rate increases

Strength of intermolecular forces

- The lower intermolecular force, the higher the vaporisation rate

CONDENSATION

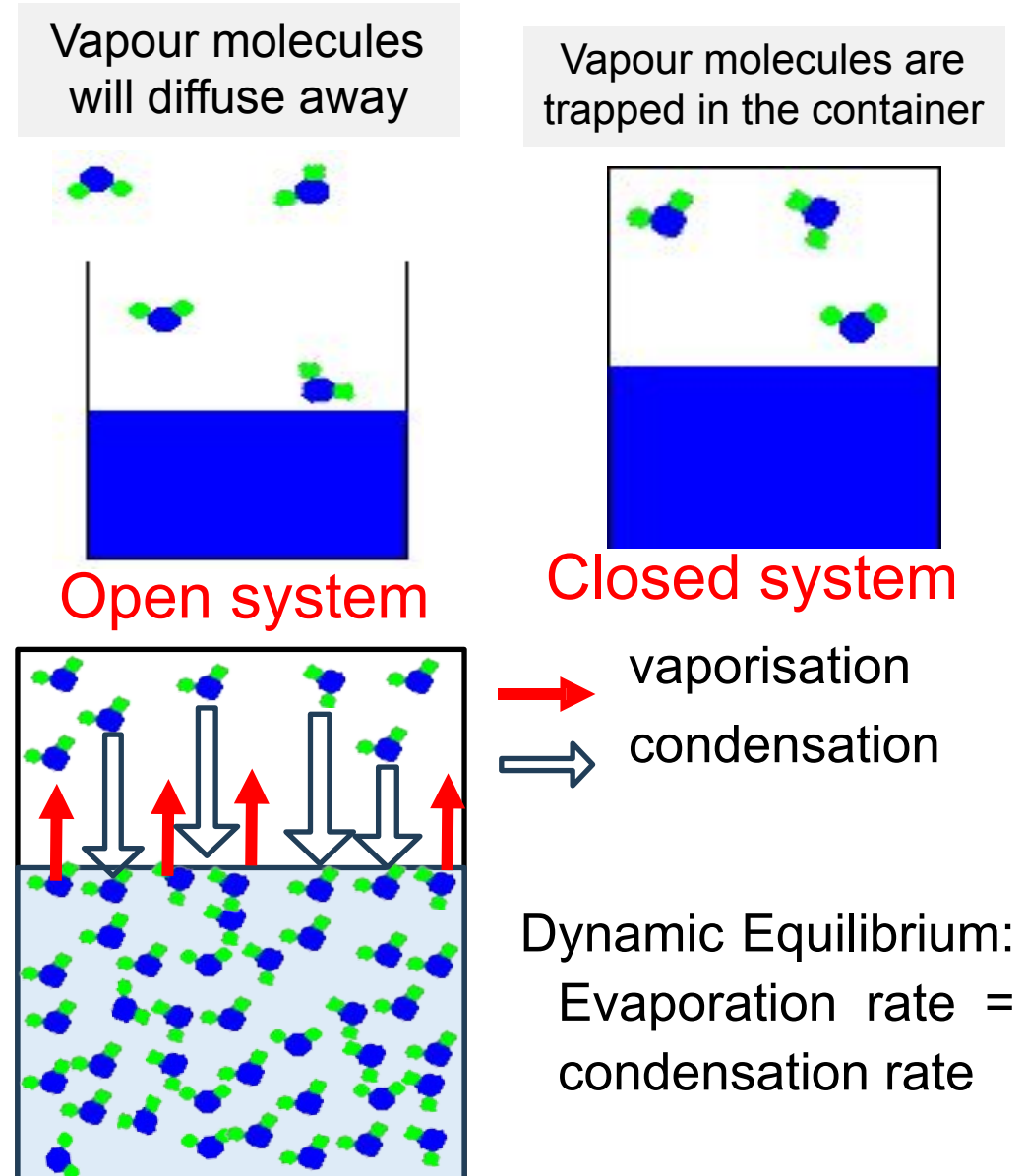
- Condensation is a process of changing state from vapour to liquid.
- It occurs when the vapour molecules are cooled or when pressure is exerted.
- The molecules will lose their kinetic energy during collision. Under this condition, the molecules move slowly and closer to each
- The intermolecular attractive forces are strong enough to pull the molecules together and trapped among the liquid molecules hence, liquid is formed.



Vapour molecules lose kinetic energy and are trapped among liquid molecules

VAPOUR MOLECULES & DYNAMIC EQUILIBRIUM

- Vapour molecules: molecules that escaped from the surface of a liquid.
- If evaporation occurs in an open system, vapour molecules will diffuse away until the liquid dries up.
- If evaporation occurs in a closed system, vapour molecules are trapped in the container.
- When the rate of vaporisation is equal to the rate of condensation, a state of dynamic equilibrium is reached.
- The pressure exerted at this stage is called equilibrium vapour pressure of the liquid.



VAPOUR PRESSURE

Vapour pressure is the **pressure exerted** by vapour in equilibrium with its liquid in a **closed container**.

Factors Affecting Vapour Pressure

Intermolecular attractive forces

- At constant temperature, molecules with weak intermolecular attractive forces will have higher vapour pressure.
- Hence, easier to escape from the liquid surface and more volatile.

Temperature

- As temperature increases, molecules will have higher kinetic energy.
- More molecules will overcome the intermolecular attractive forces and escape from the liquid surface to form vapour.
- Hence, the vapour pressure increase.

BOILING POINT

- Boiling Point : The temperature at which the vapour pressure of a liquid equals the atmospheric or external pressure.
- Boiling occurs at the surface and inner part of the liquid at specific temperature and pressure.
- During the boiling process, temperature remain constant even heat is supplied.
- Normal boiling point is the temperature at which a liquid boils when the external pressure is 1 atm.

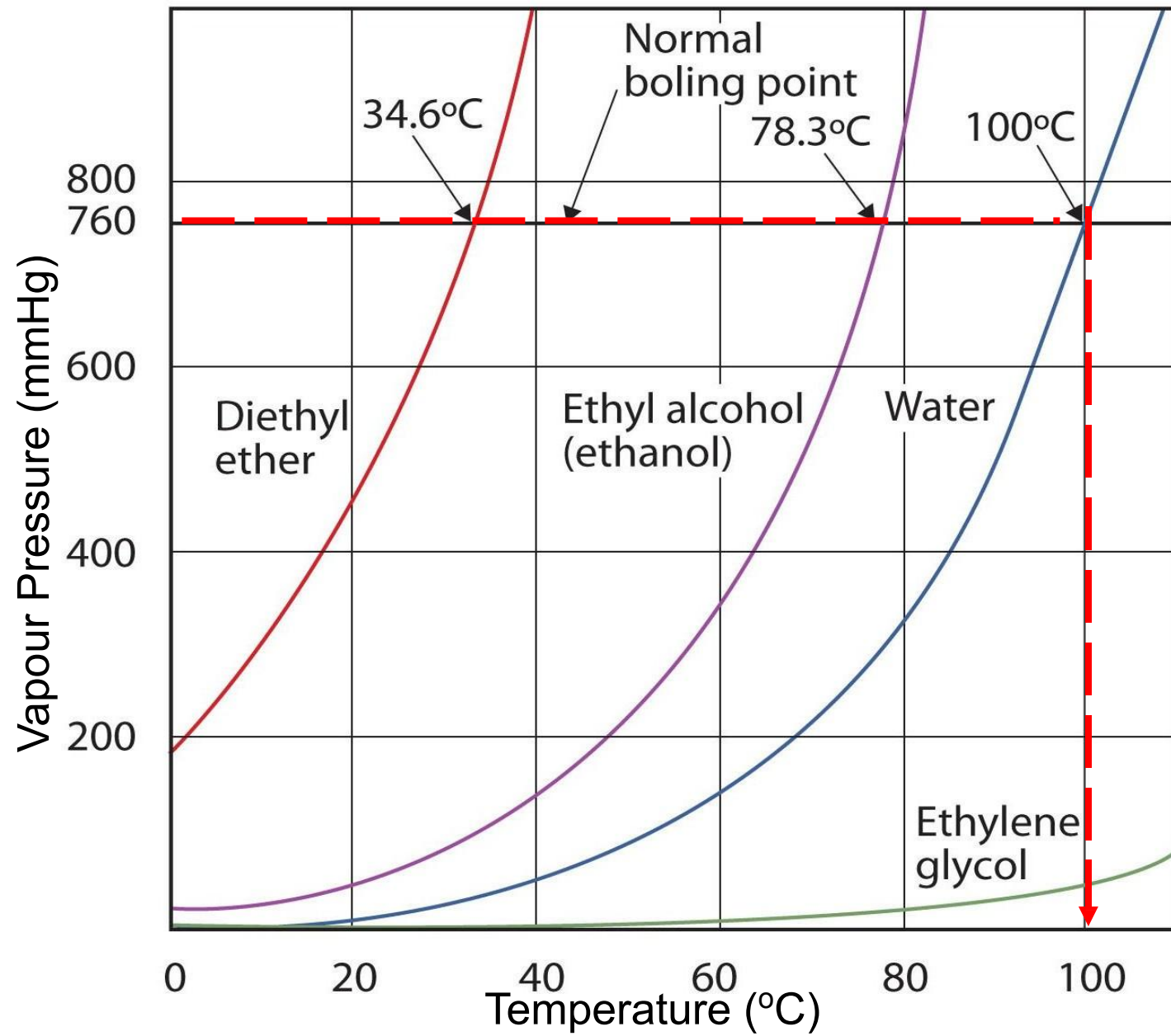
Factors Affecting Boiling point

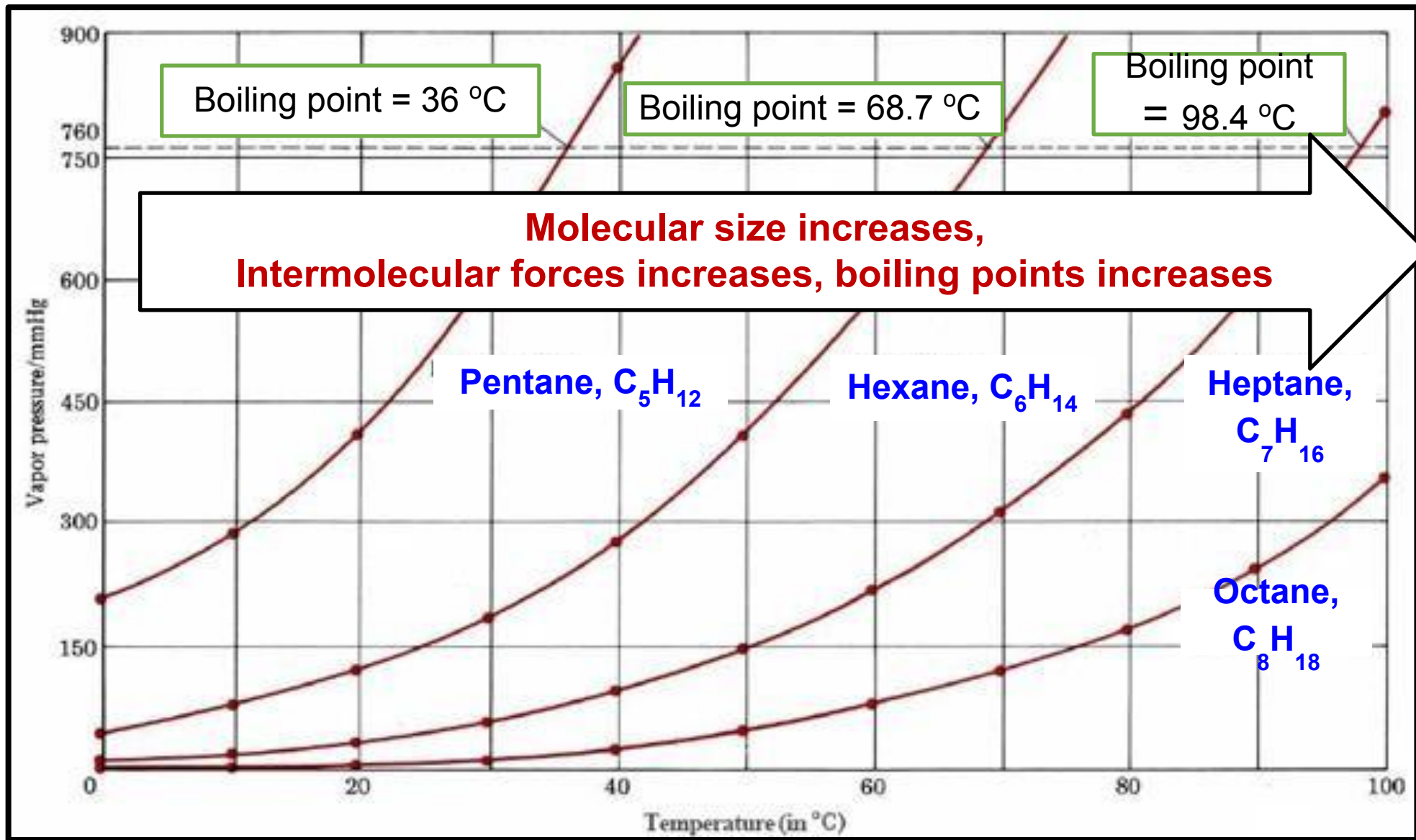
Atmospheric pressure

- The higher the atmospheric pressure, the higher the boiling point of a liquid.
- More heat is needed so that the molecules have more kinetic energy to vapourise and to reach vapour pressure equal to external atmospheric pressure

Intermolecular forces

- Liquid with stronger intermolecular attractive forces will have lower vapour pressure and higher boiling points





EXAMPLE:

- a) Define boiling point.
- b) “The boiling point of a liquid increases with the increase in the strength of intermolecular forces”. Explain the statement.

SOLUTION:

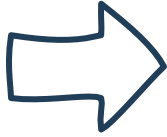
a) The temperature at which the vapour pressure of a liquid equals the atmospheric or external pressure

Liquid whose intermolecular attractive forces are stronger will have higher boiling point.

This is because more energy is needed to overcome the intermolecular attractive forces acting on them, order to vapourise and reach a vapour pressure that is equivalent to the atmospheric pressure.

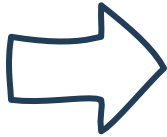
5.3 SOLID

Strength Of Interparticle Forces



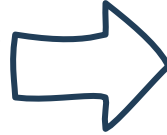
Strong enough to hold solid particles together firmly in place

Arrangement Of Particles



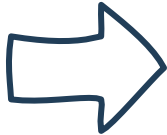
Closely packed and held in rigid and orderly arrangement

Molecular Motion



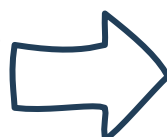
Cannot move freely but can only vibrate and rotate about fixed position

Shape And
Volume



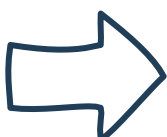
Definite shape and fixed volume

Compressibility



Almost none : very difficult to be compressed

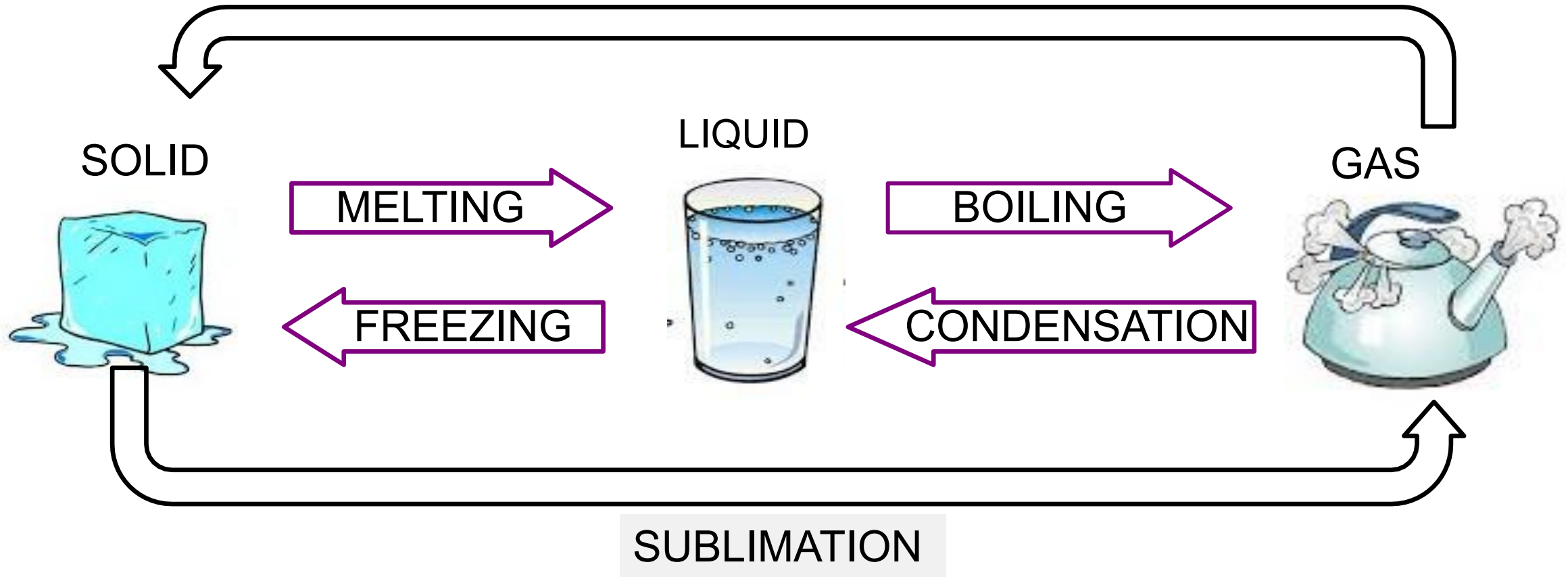
Density



High

In Principle, Solid, Liquid And Gas States Are Inter-Convertible

DEPOSITION



FREEZING (SOLIDIFICATION)

- Freezing is a process of changing state liquid to solid phase.
- When heat from a liquid is removed (liquid is cooled), the kinetic energy of the particles is decreased.
- A point is reached when the particles can no longer overcome the intermolecular attractive forces and move more slowly and finally arrange into fixed positions to become solid

MELTING (FUSION)

- Melting is a process of changing state solid to liquid phase.
- When molecules in the solid state are heated, they gain kinetic energy and vibrate faster.
- When the kinetic energy of the molecules is strong enough to overcome the intermolecular attractive forces, the molecules move freely and no longer confined to fixed position, thus solid converts to liquid.

SUBLIMATION

- Sublimation is a process of changing state solid to gas.
- Occurs when molecules on the surface of a solid possess enough kinetic energy to overcome the intermolecular attractive forces leave the solid phase as vapour.

DEPOSITION

- Deposition is a process of changing state gas to solid.
- When cooled under certain conditions vapour molecules lose kinetic energy and can no longer overcome the intermolecular attractive forces thus molecules arrange into fixed positions to become solid.

TYPES OF SOLID

Solid can be divided into two types :

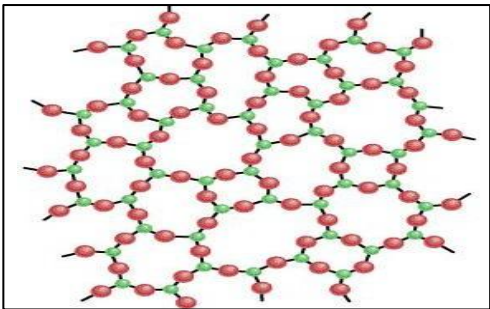
AMORPHOUS

Particles are in irregular @ disorderly random arrangement.

No definite melting point, melting occurs over a temperature range

Shatter irregularly

Eg : glass, plastic material, rubber



Amorphous Solid :
glass

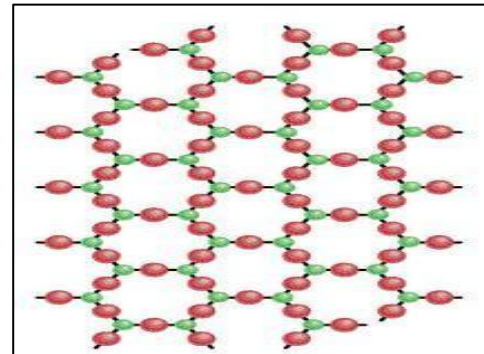
CRYSTALLINE

Particles are in regular arrangement @ orderly

Sharp @ well defined melting point.

Shatter to crystalline shaped pieces

Eg : sugar, ice, salt



Crystalline Solid :
 SiO_2

Types of Crystalline Solid

METALLIC SOLID

examples : all metallic elements : Na, Mg, Fe



IONIC SOLID

examples : MgCl_2 , KCl



MOLECULAR COVALENT SOLID

example:

element: iodine (I_2), sulphur (S_8), phosphorus (P_4)

compound: dry ice (solid CO_2), (H_2O),



GIANT COVALENT SOLID

example:

element: examples : element $\rightarrow$ diamond, graphite, Si

compound $\rightarrow$ silicon(IV) oxide, SiO_2



CRYSTALLINE SOLIDS

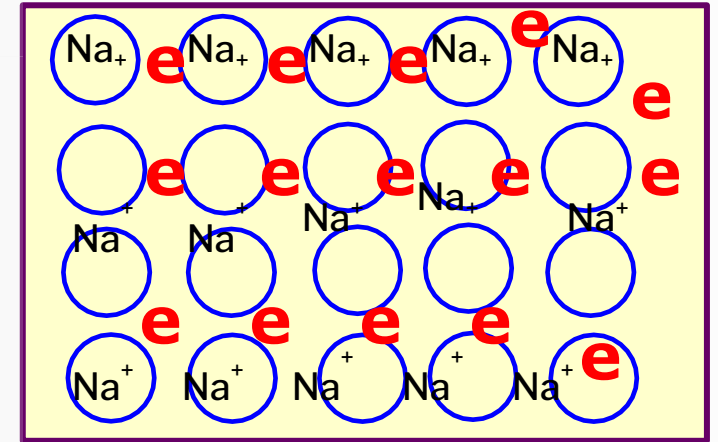
TYPE OF BONDING

EXAMPLE

Metallic Solid
(Na, Mg, Fe, Al)

Metallic bond

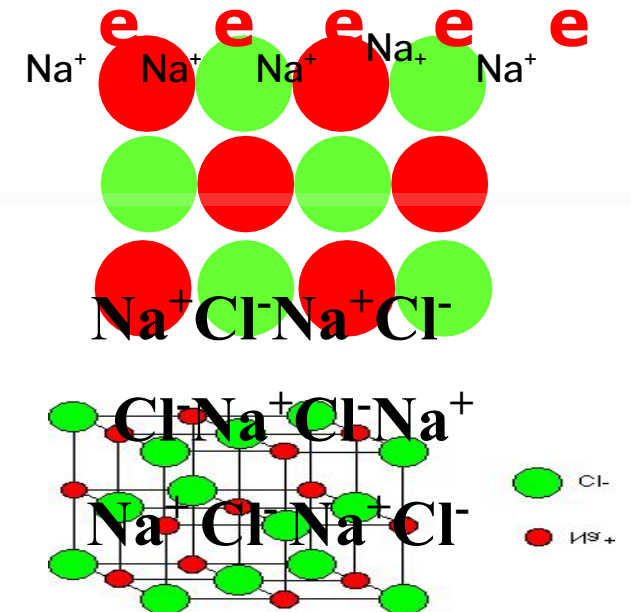
Held together by the electrostatic force of attraction between the positively charged ions and the negatively charged of sea of delocalised valence electrons

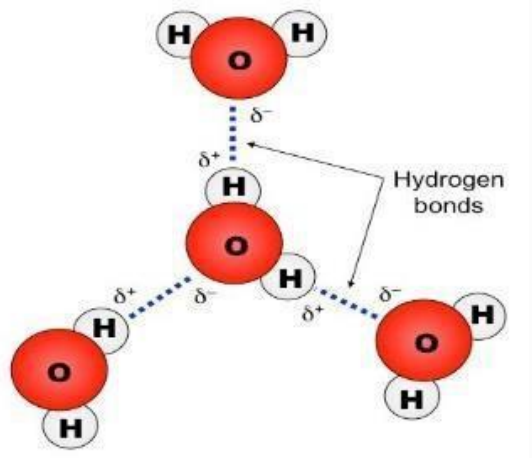
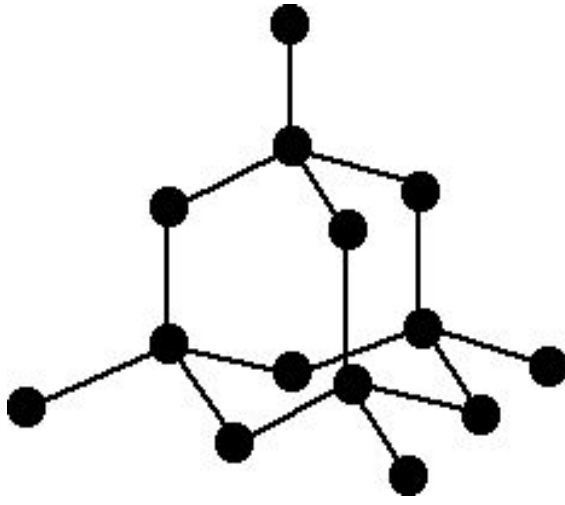


Ionic Solid
(NaCl, LiF, MgO)

Ionic Bond

Held by strong electrostatic force of attraction between positive and negative ions



CRYSTALLINE SOLIDS	TYPE OF BONDING	EXAMPLE
Molecular Covalent Solid (CO ₂ (dry ice), I ₂ ,	Dispersion forces, dipole-dipole interaction, hydrogen bond Held together by intermolecular forces such as van der Waals forces or hydrogen bonds	 The diagram illustrates hydrogen bonding between three water molecules. Each molecule consists of a red oxygen atom (O) and two white hydrogen atoms (H). The oxygen atom has a partial negative charge (δ⁻) and the hydrogen atoms have a partial positive charge (δ⁺). Dashed lines represent hydrogen bonds between the δ⁻ oxygen of one molecule and the δ⁺ hydrogen of another. A label 'Hydrogen bonds' with an arrow points to these dashed lines.
Giant Covalent Solid C (diamond), SiO ₂ (quartz)	Covalent bond Giant/ infinite/ network covalent solid in which the solid is bound by strong covalent bond.	 The diagram shows a network of black spheres representing atoms, connected by solid lines representing strong covalent bonds. The structure is a continuous 3D network, characteristic of a giant covalent solid like diamond or quartz.

EXAMPLE:

- a) Define melting point and normal melting point of a substance.
- b) Describe the melting process in terms of the molecular kinetic theory.

SOLUTION:

- a) Melting point: Temperature when solid changes to liquid
Normal melting point: The temperature at which the solid and liquid are in equilibrium at total pressure of 1 atm.
- b) When molecules in solid are heated, molecules gain kinetic energy and vibrate faster. When kinetic energy of the molecules is strong enough to overcome the attractive forces, the molecules moves freely and are no longer confined to fixed position, thus solid converts to liquid.

5.4 PHASE DIAGRAM

- Substance may exist as **solid, liquid, gas** state, at different temperature and pressure
- When temperature and/or pressure are changed, substance will be transformed from one state to another.
- However, at certain temperature & pressure substance may exist in 2 @ 3 different states at the same time
- Under this condition, substance is said to be in a **phase equilibrium** ie equilibrium between different phases in a system

PHASE

- Is a homogenous part of the system in contact with other parts of the system but separated from them by a well-defined boundary

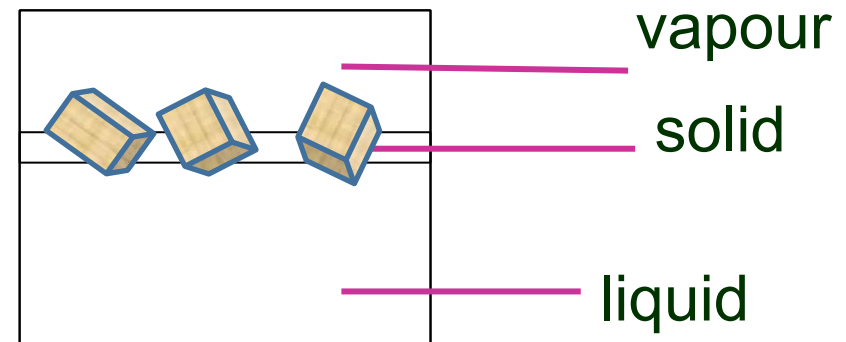
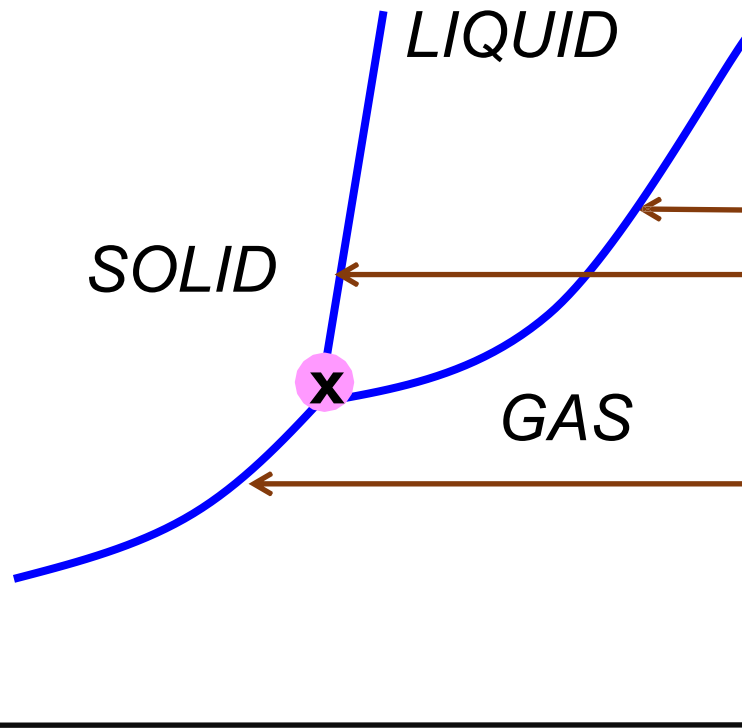


Figure shows the system that consist of ice, water and vapour

PHASE DIAGRAM

Graphical representation of the phase changes of a substance at conditions of temperature and pressure. various

Pressure



Each line represents the sets of temperature and pressure at which the two phases on the both sides of the line coexist in equilibrium.

Temperature

Line

- Represents the boundary between two phases.
- Two phases can exist together at equilibrium

Area(region)

- Represents the conditions under which the substance will be in that particular phase

Triple Point

- Triple point is the point at which the three phases, solid, liquid and gas, can coexist at the same temperature and pressure.
- This is where three lines meet together

Critical Point

- Critical point is a point on the liquid-gas equilibrium curve, above which it is impossible to condense a gas into a liquid.
- The Liquid-gas line ends

PHASE DIAGRAM OF CARBON DIOXIDE

Pressure (atm)

73.0

5.2

1.0

Triple point:
Temperature &
Pressure at which
the 3 phases
coexist in
equilibrium

Solid

Liquid

Gas

melting / freezing (OB line)

Critical point (C) :
above this point,
the liquid & a gas
phases become
indistinguishable

Sublimation / deposition
(AO line)

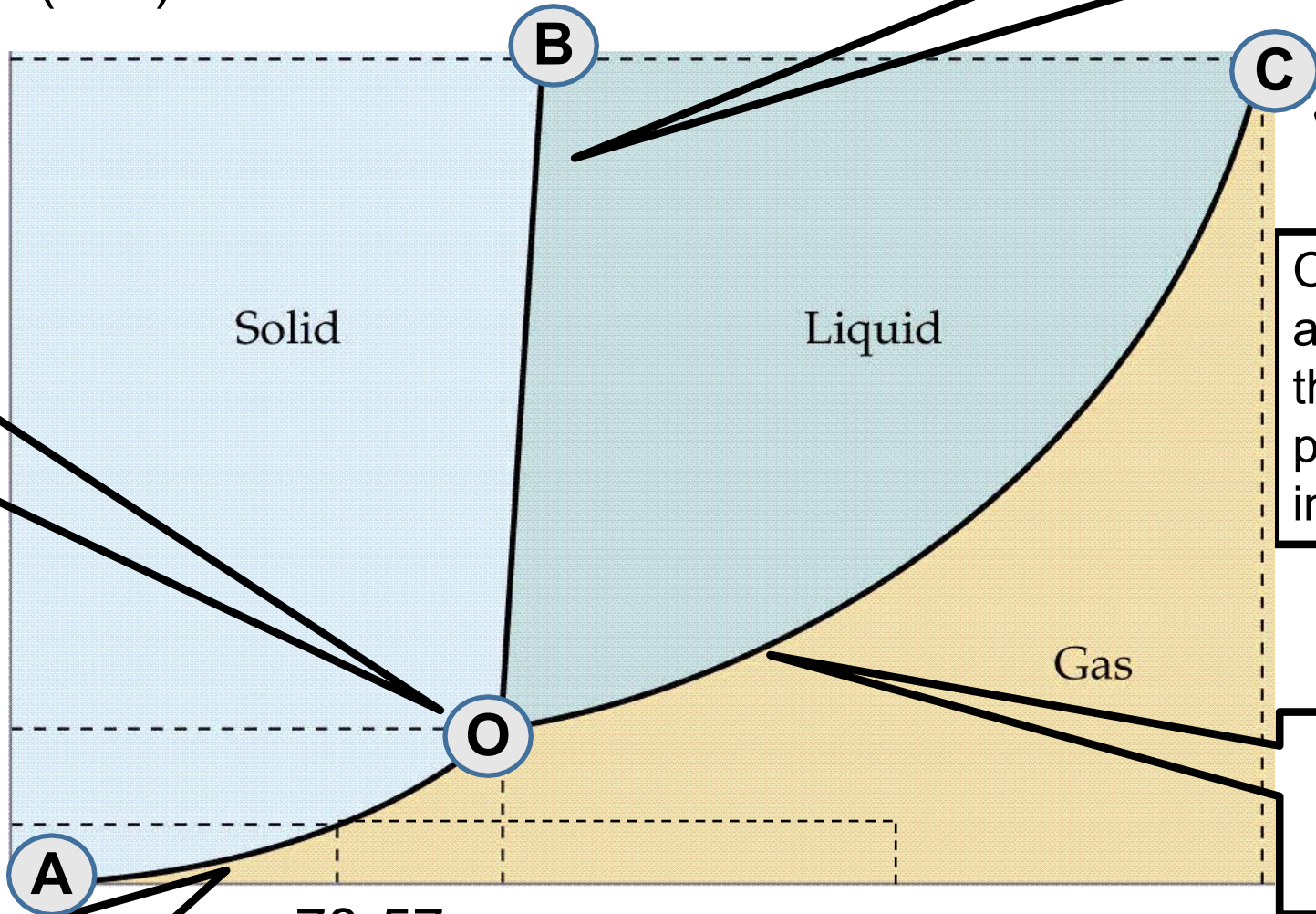
vaporisation /
condensation
(OC line)

Temperature (°C)

-78-57

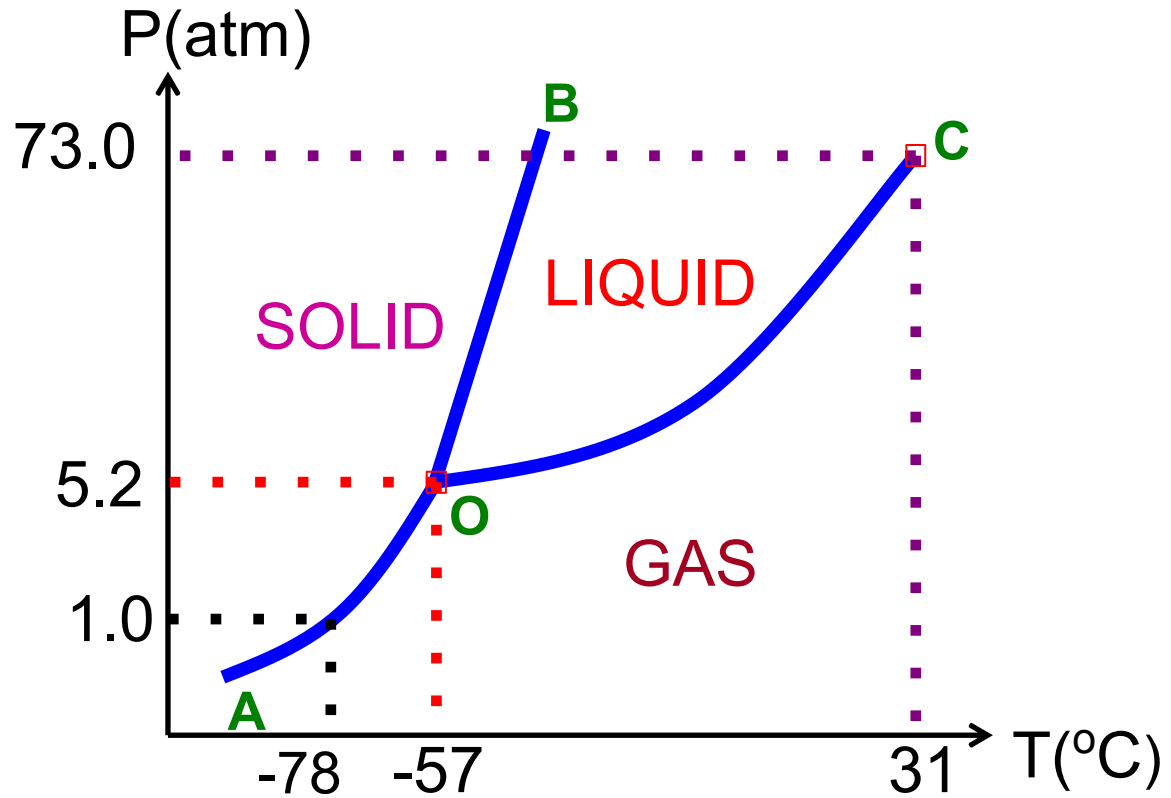
25

CO₂ is a gas under normal conditions (25°C, 1 atm)



PHASE DIAGRAM OF CARBON DIOXIDE

Phase Diagram of CO_2 is a Typical Phase Diagram

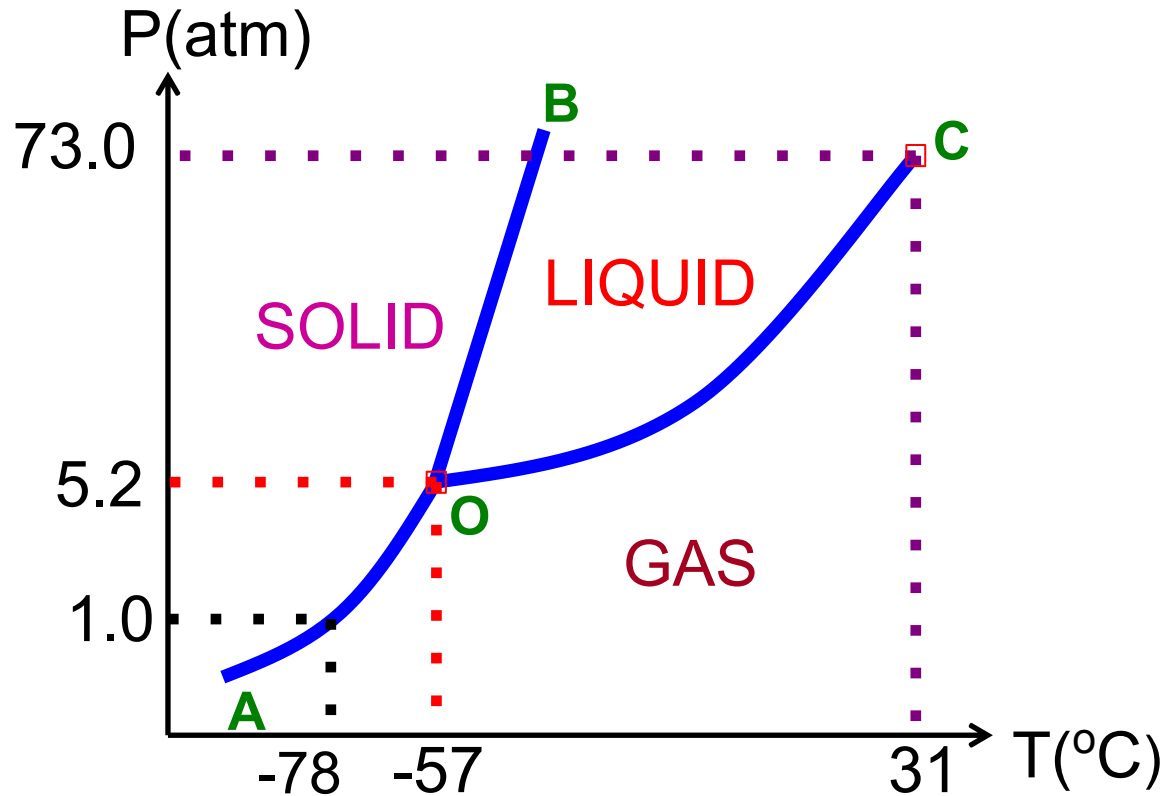


Explanation:

- At 1 atm, CO_2 is a solid at temperature below -78°C .
- Above this temperature, CO_2 is a gas.
- The triple point of CO_2 occurs at -57°C and 5.2 atm.
- Below this point, CO_2 cannot exist as a liquid.
- at 1 atm solid CO_2 does not melt but sublime when heated. Because the normal pressure is below the triple point (5.2 atm), solid CO_2 sublimates without turning into liquid.

PHASE DIAGRAM OF CARBON DIOXIDE

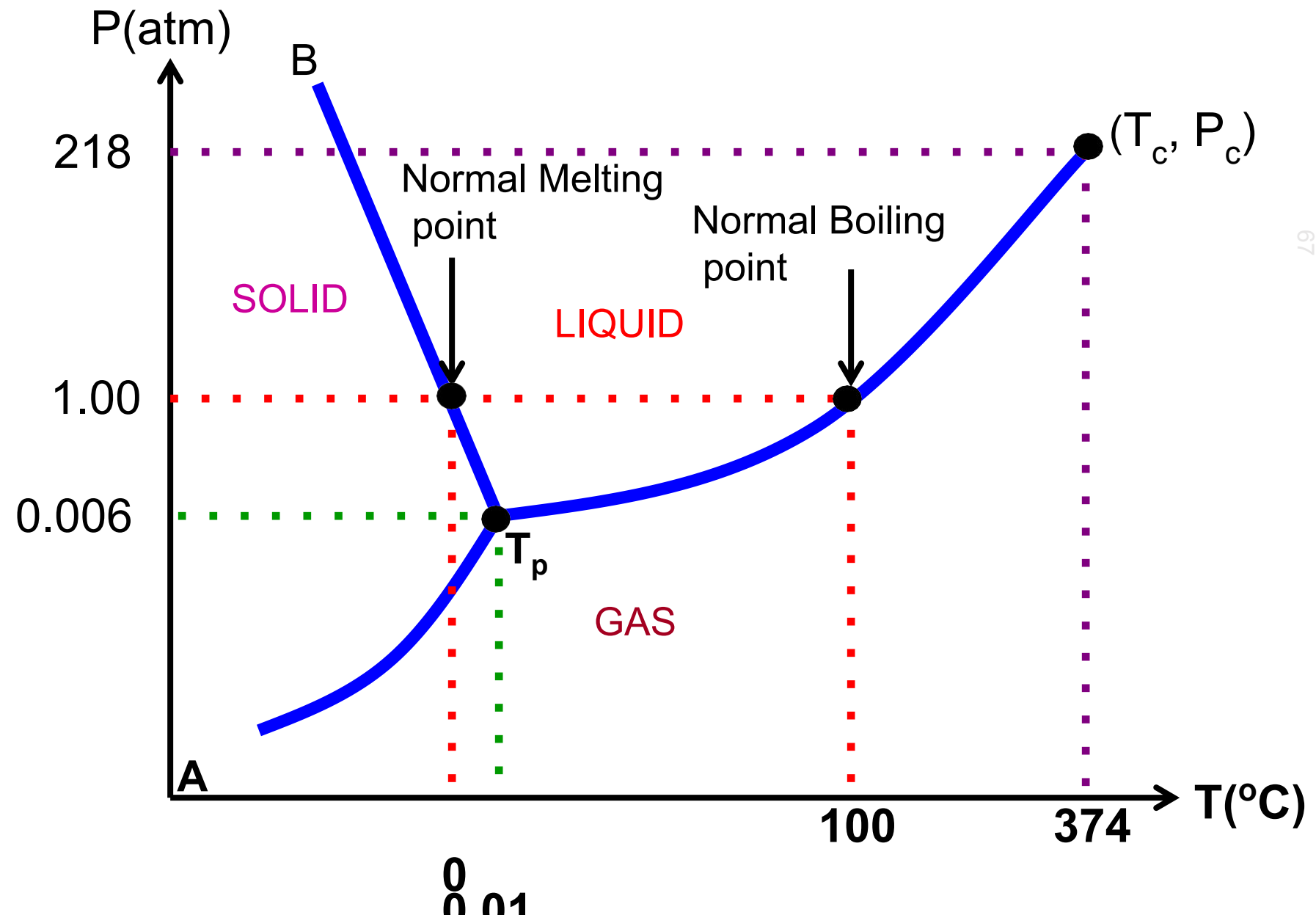
Phase Diagram of CO_2 is a Typical Phase Diagram



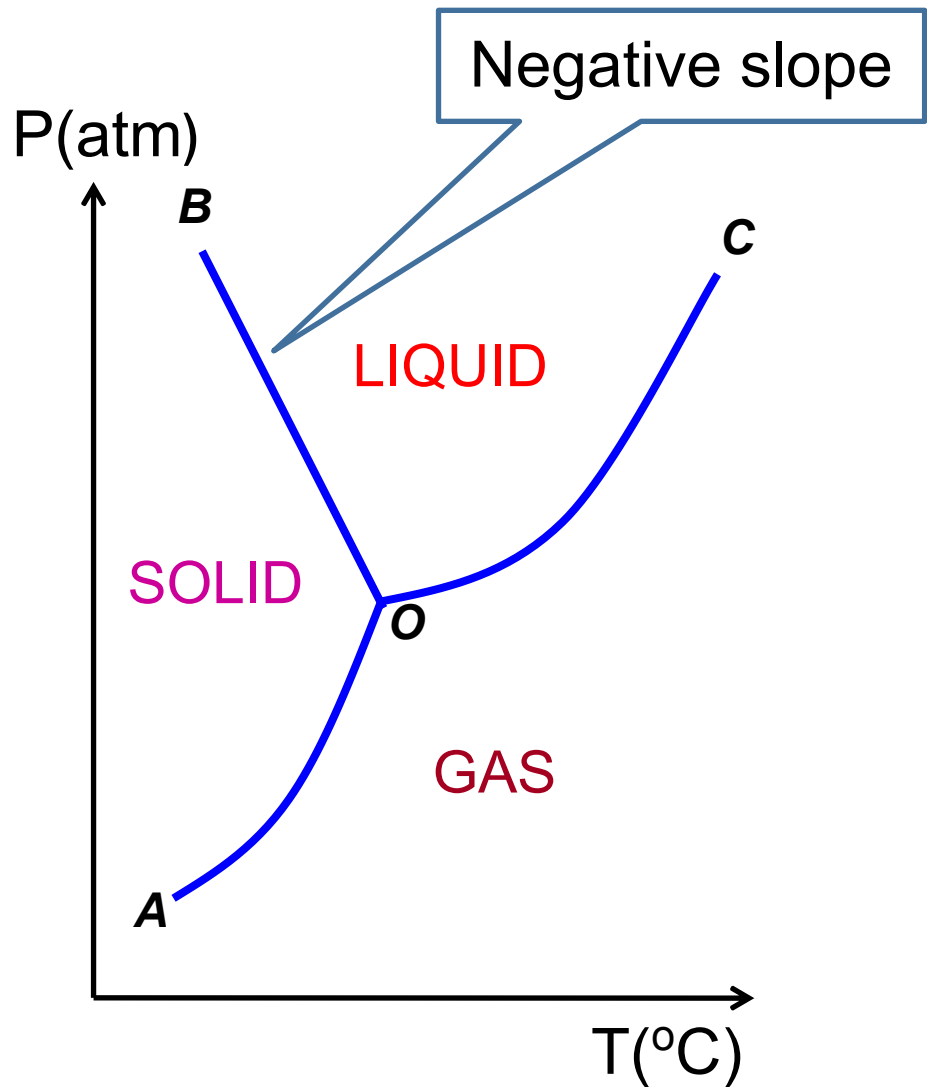
Explanation:

- Positive slope of solid-liquid equilibrium line means melting point increases when pressure is increased.
- When pressure is increased, formation of more compact solid CO_2 is favoured as solid CO_2 is denser than liquid CO_2 .
- More difficult to melt the solid CO_2 at high pressure.

PHASE DIAGRAM OF WATER

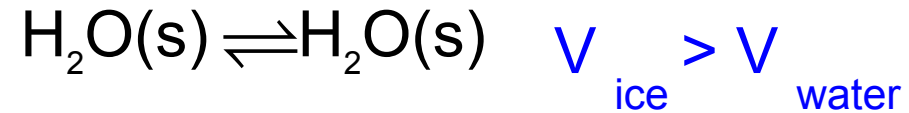


PHASE DIAGRAM OF WATER



Anomalous Behaviour of Water

- Negative slope of OB lines means melting point decreases when pressure is increased.
- Ice has lower density than liquid water occupies bigger volume than liquid water

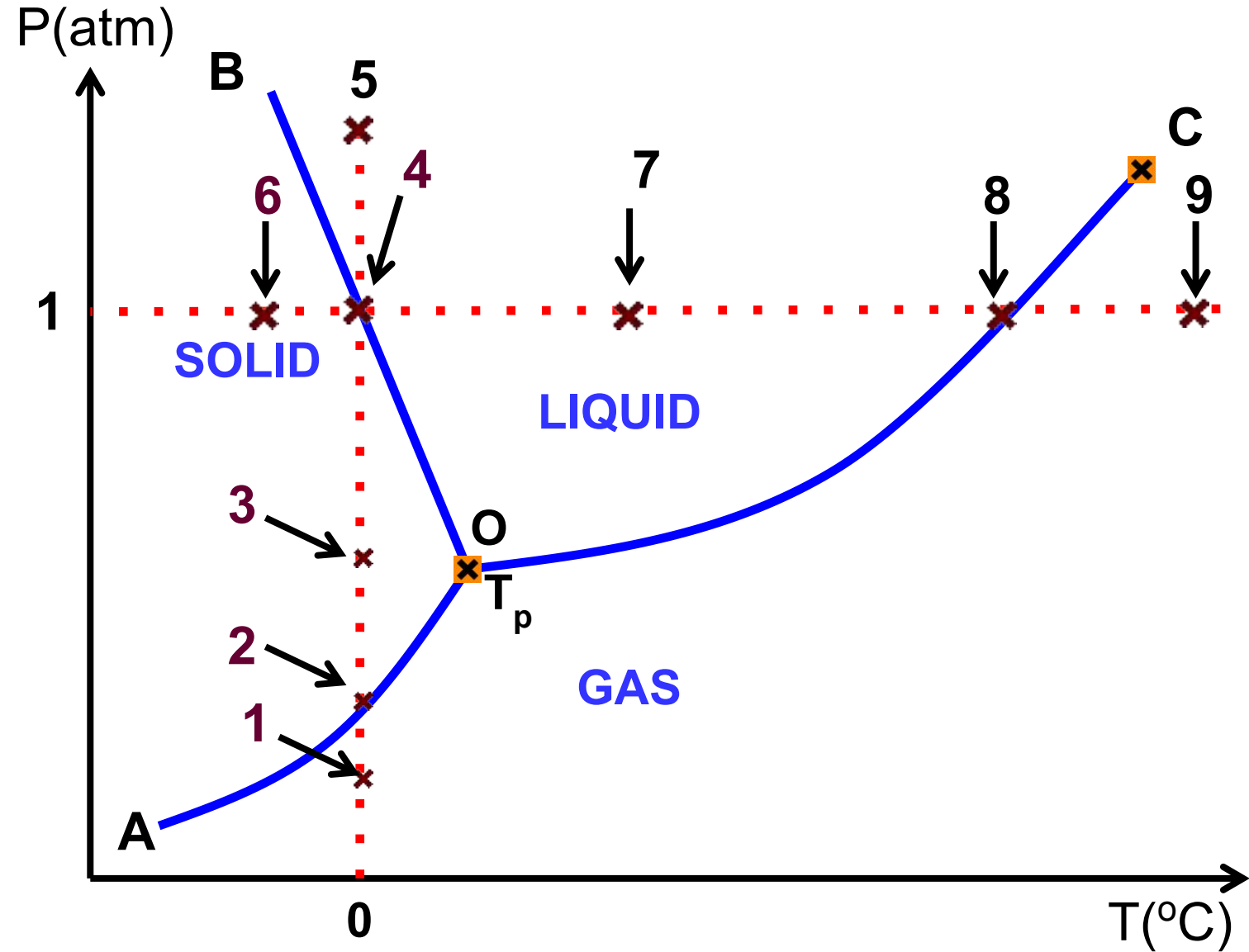


- When pressure is increased, formation of more compact liquid water is favoured
- Therefore, ice easily melts at high pressure.

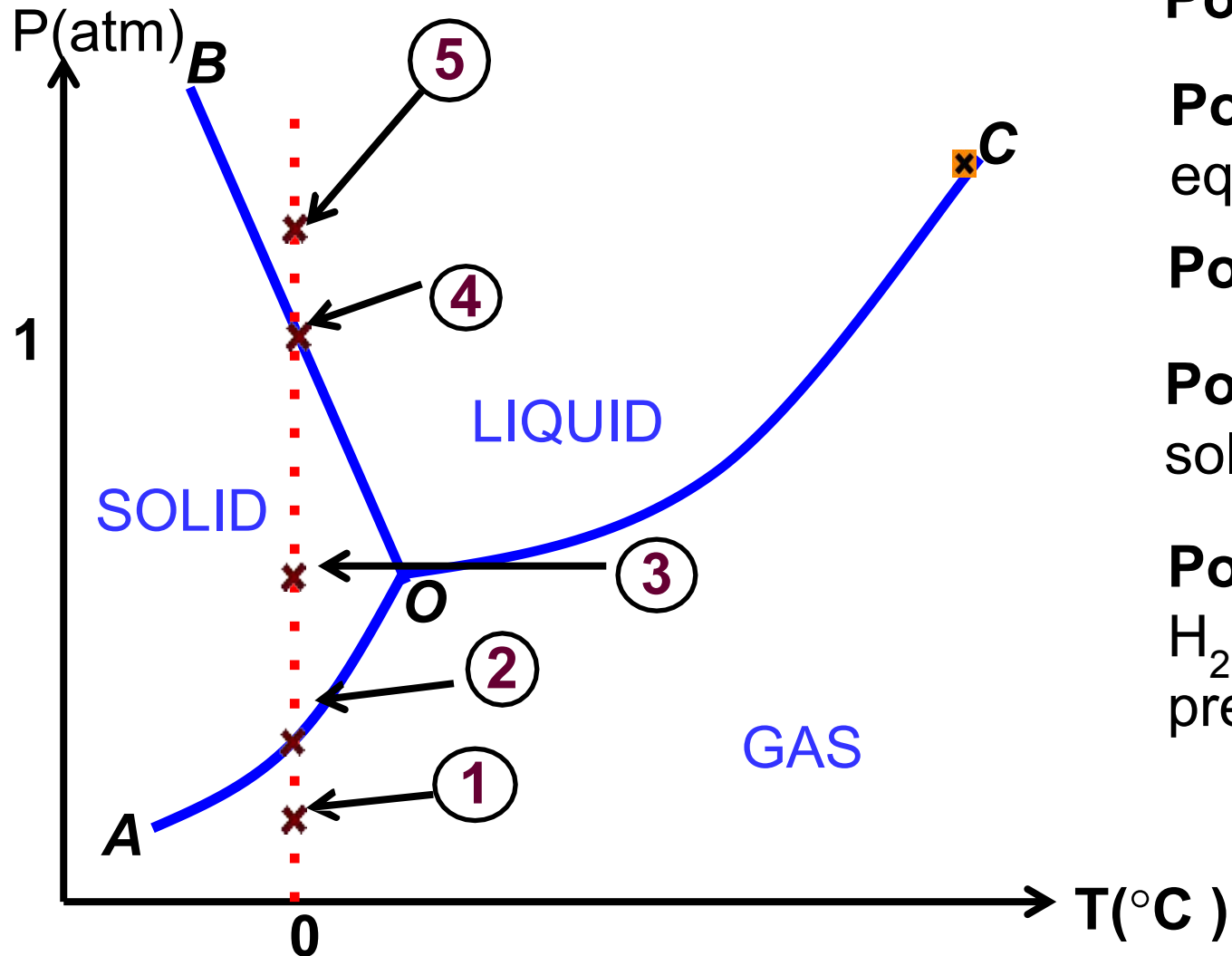
EXAMPLE:

By referring to the phase diagram of water given, describe any changes H_2O is

- kept at 0°C while the pressure increased from point 1 to point 5 (vertical line)
- kept at 1.00 atm while the temperature is increased from point 6 to point 9 (horizontal line)



SOLUTION:



a)

Point 1 : H_2O exists totally as a vapour

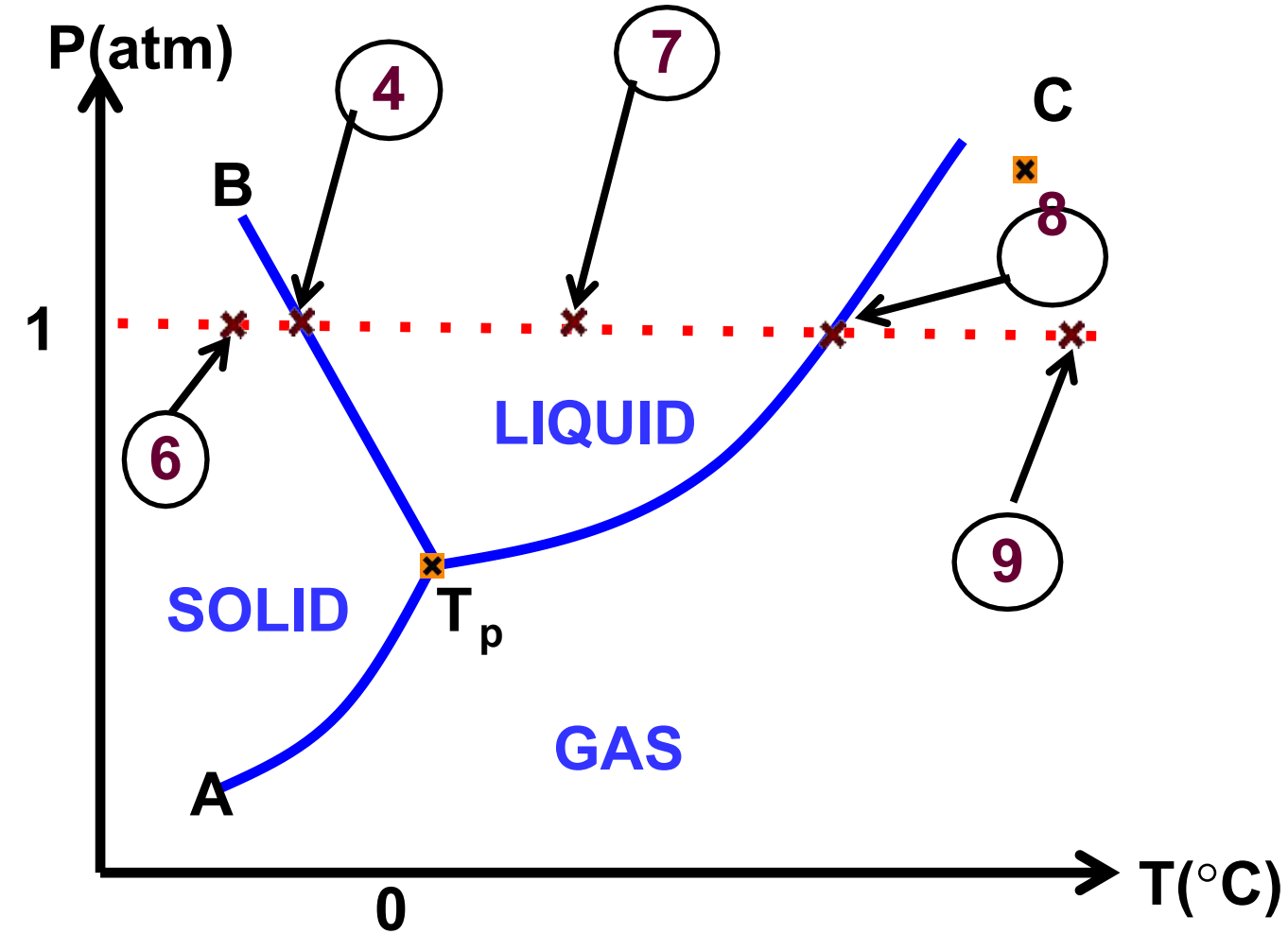
Point 2 : a solid-vapour equilibrium exists.

Point 3 : all H_2O is converted to solid

Point 4 : equilibrium between solid and liquid is achieved

Point 5 : As pressure increases, all H_2O melts. So, only the liquid phase is present

SOLUTION:



b) **Point 6** : H_2O exists entirely as solid

Point 4 : the solid begins to melt & equilibrium exists between the solid & liquid phases

Point 7 : At even higher temperature, the solid has been converted entirely to a liquid

Point 8 : a liquid-vapour equilibrium exists

Point 9 : upon further heating to point 9, H_2O is converted entirely to the vapour phase



THE END